



Lesson 1-22 Handouts reviewed

Sociological theories (Virtual University of Pakistan)



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Lecture 01**THEORY AND THEORIZING****(TOPIC 01-06)****Topic 001: What is Theory?**

Try to understand and explain the realities. Why is it there? How realities are related?

Process of theorizing --- outcome is theory

Theory.

A set of logical propositions which attempts to explain the relationships between the phenomena.

Why and how the realities (events) occur?

- Our focus on social beings → interaction.
- Explain why and how they interact and with what possible outcomes.

Social theory.

- Subject matter of theory.
- Could relate to physical environment and/or social environment.
- Description and explanations related to social environment fall within the purview of social theory.

Three fundamental meanings of social theory:

1. An attempt to understand and explain the nature and working of society. Explain social phenomenon. Social theory is descriptive as well as explanatory
2. Theory is normative and prescriptive. Establishing strategies to create a better world.

View contested → theories should be value free. Positivistic approach.

3. Social theory is necessarily bound up with actual social movements and social classes. Society/social environment understood and explained by different subject specialist's such as economists, psychologists, anthropologists, educationists, demographers, sociologists.

Topic 002: Components of Theory

Mental activity → process of developing ideas that explain how and why events occur.

Formulation of explicit propositions that explain recurrent patterns that can be observed in the social world. These can also be called as basic elements:

1. Concepts
2. Variables
3. Statements/propositions

Concepts

Concepts are images of reality. Focus is on observable reality or phenomenon (physical/non-physical). For purposes of identification, reality is given a name (label, sign, and symbol). The name/label is abstracted from the reality. Concept is abstract reality may be physical or created by people → social construct. These are means of communication. Therefore Should have consensus on the meanings. Better define: develop as clear and precise a definition as possible. Definitions: theoretical and operational. Theories are built by using concepts. There has to be a narrative. Concepts are connected/related meaningfully and statements made.

Topic 003: Component of Theory (Cont....)

Variables

Refer to reality that vary/differ in degree/type. Concepts translated into variables. Make categories of variation. Label each category. For understanding the world, visualize how variation in one reality is related to another. Reasoning for the visualized relationship. Interpretation of how and why this relationship. The resultant proposition.

Propositions

- Number of connected realities around an issue.
- Results in the:

- Formulation of number of propositions.
- Proposition is a theoretical statement.

Logical connection between and among the propositions. To make them meaningful for explaining the reality/phenomenon. Hence arrange propositions in some order.

Theory

Arrangement proposition in some order. Axiomatic format: from highly abstract to less abstract to empirical.

- Axioms: propositions that are assumed to be true in and of themselves. Truth self-evident.
- Theorems: proved by chain of reasoning.
- Propositions can be derived from axioms.
- Orderly arrangement. Axiomatic format
- Sequential arrangement of propositions makes a chain → set of linked propositions.
- Interrelated set of propositions is theory.
- If the realities are empirical, then you can test the propositions. In that case propositions become hypothesis.
- Testing the theory or part thereof i.e. hypothesis. Empirical regularity.

Topic 004: Theorizing

A set of propositions that are logically related and that interpret, explain, or predict a phenomenon (reality) of interest. Propositions are theoretical statements. Propositions are constructed. Construction/creation of propositions is a process. Theorization can be deductive or inductive.

Scientific theories

- Explain and predict the phenomenon in question.
- Produce testable propositions/hypotheses.
- Focus on measurable variables through sensory experiences. Since the focus is on social life, hence it has limitations in predictions due to the nature of its subject matter.

Steps in Theorizing

1. Selecting the phenomenon

- The phenomenon/reality of interest.
- The reality to be identified by the concept. Is it a variable?
- What is this reality? Its image. The description of what it appears to be including its profile.
- Basis of interest: basic research, applied research

2. Explaining the phenomenon

- Why of this reality? Explanation of the reality. Why this happening?
- Identification of other concepts/variables supposedly related to the selected reality.
- Rationale (logic) for the relationships.

3. Defining the concept

- No ambiguity in the meanings of concepts.
- Same concept but different meaning.
- Specify what is your meaning of the relevant concepts.

4. Formulate propositions

- Number of variables result in a number of propositions.
- Provide logic for each proposed relationship between the variables.

5. Sequentially arrange propositions

- Orderly arrangement of propositions is theory.
- This is the narrative of the theory.
- Can we verify it to make it a scientific theory?

Topic 005: Theorizing (Cont....)**6. Draw hypothesis**

- Are variables observable realities?
- Operationalize the variables for measurement, so that hypothesis could be tested.

7. Collect data and test

- Interpret the collected data and draw inferences.
- Do data support the hypothesis/ hypotheses?

8. Resultant scientific theory

- Theory based on empirical grounds.

Theory open to Challenge

Aim to produce a universal theory. Creations of human beings are open to challenge. More so what is related with human beings. New findings could reinforce, modify, or completely reject a beautiful theory. This is what research does with theory.

Deductive Inductive Approach

- The process outlined was based on deductive (quantitative) approach.
- Similarly theory is developed by following inductive (qualitative) approach. Grounded theory.

Topic 006: Social Context of Theorizing**Social Context**

Theorizing takes place in some social situation i.e. social universe/society. Societies are in some historical period at any point in time. Societies are governed by ideological and intellectual approaches. Theorists subscribe to certain ideological and intellectual orientations. Which in turn: Affect individual's conceptualization of reality.

Social context may be looked at from three angles:

1. Societal conditions
2. Intellectual conditions
3. Biographical conditions

Social Conditions

Theories reflect the society's conditions. Explanation of what is happening in society. Social development -- industrialization, bureaucratization, welfare needs, population explosion – all need explanation. Theories developed as a reaction to societal changes. Academics and

intellectuals interpret the changing realities and explain in the form of theories. Theory may be viewed as the function of specific societal conditions.

Intellectual Conditions

Intellectual norms with respect to explaining the realities in society. Intellectual models of thought prevalent at the time. Metaphysical approach, empirical approach, rationalism. With industrialization shift from purely philosophical to scientific approach.

Biographical Conditions

Theorist's life influences his/her perspective. SES, academic training, intellectual peers, ideological views, personal life. Upper class background → conservatism, functionalism. Others → radical approach. Personal experience → sufferings. Academic community → peers – institutional subculture. Provided feedback.

Lecture 02**THEORY AND RESEARCH****(Topic 07-09)****Topic 007: Knowledge, Theory and Research**

Theory building is the means by which basic researchers hope to achieve this purpose.

Knowledge

- Knowledge is a familiarity, awareness, or understanding of someone or something. It is about reality/phenomenon. Knowledge may include: facts, information, skills. Knowledge acquired through experience or education. Knowledge can refer to: a theoretical or practical understanding of a subject/reality.
- Theoretical body of knowledge
- Empirical body of knowledge

Theorists often focus on ideas about reality and create knowledge. Empiricists/researchers contribute to empirical/scientific knowledge by devoting themselves to the collection and analysis of empirical data. The division is just for academic purposes. Followers of each may have more emphasis on one (theory) than the other (research). Hence some kind of fragmentation, though artificial. Let us look at each:

Theory and Research

Theory viewed as abstract, soft mental images of reality. Domain of intellectuals' research as empirical world of hard, settled, and observable things. Theory and research (fact) contribute to each other. Theory is an intimate part of facts (practical part of reality). Theory without empirical work is empty but empirical data without theory are blind. It is implicit foundation of all bodies of knowledge.

Topic 008: Linking Theory and Research**Role of theory**

The logical explanations could be verified through empirical work. Theory plays important role in research. Researches are often grounded in theoretical framework. Five possible roles are:

1. Theory as orientation

- Theory specifies the factors that the researcher should be able to measure before inquiry. A theoretical framework.
- A phenomenon (football) may be studied in many different ways. Broad area.
- Focus on something manageable.
- What aspects to be studied? Which kinds of facts are relevant?

2. Theory as conceptualization & classification

- Theory helps to build an edifice of concepts as part of explanations to understand reality. Hence special vocabulary.
- Concepts as building blocks of theory.
- Concept, definitions, systems of knowledge classified. Again a concept given.
- Develop abstract models.

3. Summarizing role

- Summarize what is already known.
- Call them empirical generalizations (child rearing practices, demographic trends)
- Integrate the empirical generalizations.

4. Theory predict facts

- Outcome of summarizing role.
- Extrapolation from known to unknown. What is expected in the given the scenario.
- Western technology and decline in D. Rate.
- Population explosion.

5. Theory point gaps in knowledge

- While summarizing the known facts and predicting the unknown, gap could be identified.
- Lot of material about criminal behavior but not much on white collar crime.
- Theory may suggest the deficiency in knowledge.

Topic 009: Linking Theory and Research: Role of Research

Role of Research

Constant interaction between theory and research. Continuous stimulation of research by theory and theory by research. Outcome of research is hard facts. Hence in place of research let us use “facts” and instead say “role of facts.”

1. Facts initiate theory

- During research some new facts may be discovered accidentally.
- Discovered facts need to be explained.
- Requires logical argumentation for the “why” and “how” (the operation) of the discovered reality. It leads to the initiation of a new theory.

2. Facts lead to rejection and reformulation of existing theory

- Facts may be in a variety of ways → more than one resultant theory.
- New facts may lead to the rejection or reformulation of the existing theory.
- Traditional theories about the determinant of human behavior. Genes/blood. Suicide. Durkheim’s findings.

3. Facts redefine and clarify theory

- New facts may redefine and clarify the existing theory.

- Urban fertility lower than rural fertility.
- Rural migrants to cities show decline in their fertility. Why? Clarifies the existing theory.
- Do the new migrants in cities have lower fertility than the old residents? If yes, it may lead to redefining the theory. Does not reject the old theory
- May lead to new hypotheses.

Lecture 03**SOCIAL THOUGHT AND SOCIOLOGICAL THEORY****(Topic 10-12)****Topic 010: What is Sociological Theory?**

Start with social theory it is an attempt to understand and explain the nature and working of society. Social theory is descriptive as well as explanatory. Why is it done? May be for improving the situation. Hence goal may be normative.

What is Sociological Theory?

Sociological theory represents a set of assumptions concerning society and social phenomena (not based on theology, mysticism). Sociological theory is subset of social theory. Sociologists try to understand and explain society from sociological perspective. Sociologists develop theories related to social environment or social phenomena. Sociological theorizing involves the creation of abstract models of observable realities of the world of humans. Sociological theory is the understanding and explaining the world of humans. Therefore, Sociologists develop theories related to social environment or social phenomenon or social world → call them as sociological theories. S. T. represents a set of propositions couched in sociological terms.

Topic 011: What is Social Thought?

People are curious about the realities of life. Would like to know the mysteries of life. Finding answers to what, why, and how? Social thought is abstract thinking about the realities of life. Existence of world/life. It is the reasoning to grasp the deeper meanings of reality, and to penetrate the mysteries of life. Think in many ways of myths. Variety of cultural myths. Good to think and understand the myths. Myths are theories. Many as unproven. All theories are good to think. Theories do not always explain perfectly the social world (contemporary one especially). Abstract thinking may be different from practical thinking. Social thought seeks out the truth about the reality/phenomenon. Looks for causal explanations for the existence of realities. It encompasses the thinking about the realities or phenomena. The reality could be anything from a desirable to an undesirable situation (social problem). Therefore literally social thought is thinking together. Thinking about problems of society.

Aim is:

- to analyze the underlying social processes and laws of the existing reality.
- goals of such analyses may be: the advancement of human groups;
- the manipulation of humans; or
- the advancement of knowledge i.e. finding general laws/principles governing society.

Topic 012: Social Thought and Sociological Theory Connection**Social Thought**

Social thought provides a holistic view of society. Totality of human thought about human relationships. Provides general theories: explanations about the complexities of life. Social

thought is as old as human existence. Scientific ST emerged only after great scientific achievements in 16th and 17th centuries.

Objective

- To explain actions and behaviors of society as a whole.
- Explanations based on logic, imagination, intuition, and capacity of creative thinking.
- Knowledge based on not only social but also on spiritual, moral, political, economic, psychological, philosophical aspects.

Thinking about Society with varied Perspectives

- Varied perspectives: social, economic, political, religious.
- Sociologists try to understand and explain society from sociological perspective.

Sociological Theory

Sociologists develop abstract thinking about social environment or social phenomena. Call these as sociological theories. Sociological theorizing involves the creation of abstract models of observable realities of the world of humans.

Social Thought and Sociological Theory: Linkage

- Both are abstract thinking about reality i.e. the human society.
- Part – whole linkage.
- Sociological theory is the understanding and explaining the world of humans within a particular perspective. Therefore:
- S. T. represents a set of propositions couched in sociological terms.
- Every sociological theory can be a social thought but every social thought may not be sociological. Social thought is very old whereas sociological theory is very short.

Lecture 04**ORIGINS OF SOCIOLOGICAL THEORY****(Topic 13-15)****Topics 013: Early Origins of Sociological Theory: Different Forces**

With Reference to the Beginning of Sociological Theory difficult to establish the precise date. People have been thinking about, and developing theories of social life since early in history. Ritzer claims only in 1800s we find thinkers who could be clearly identified as sociologists. Call them as classical sociological thinkers.

Settings Shape the Ideas

All intellectual fields are profoundly shaped by their social settings. True of sociology. In fact it takes the social setting as its basic subject matter. Look at few of the most important social conditions of the nineteenth and early twentieth centuries. These conditions were of the utmost significance in the development of sociology. Sociology emerged during a period of change. Change in the nature of social order. Intellectual discourse analyzing the changes in social order. Social settings reflect the social and intellectual forces. These forces shape the ideas. We shall examine the main social and intellectual forces that shaped the ideas of thinkers.

Topics 014: The Social Forces: Political Revolution**Political Revolutions**

The long series of political revolutions that were ushered in by the French Revolution in 1789 and carried over through the nineteenth century was the most immediate factor in the rise of sociological theorizing. The impact of these revolutions on many societies was enormous, and many positive changes resulted. However, what attracted the attention of many early theorists was not the positive consequences but the negative effects of such changes. These writers were particularly disturbed by the resulting chaos and disorder, especially in France. They were united in a desire to restore order to society. Some of the more extreme thinkers of this period literally wanted a return to the peaceful and relatively orderly days of the Middle Ages. The more sophisticated thinkers recognized that social change had made such a return impossible. Thus they sought instead to find new bases of order in societies that had been overturned by the political revolutions of the eighteenth and nineteenth centuries. This interest in the issue of social order was one of the major concerns of classical sociological theorists, especially Comte, Durkheim, and Parsons.

Revolutions

- Far reaching social and political upheavals in France.
- End of monarchy and beginning of republics.
- Conservative republic.
- Rebellion by workers.
- Fighting for the rights.
- Economic revolution.

- Decline of feudal system.
- Wave of revolutions in Europe.
- Rise to notions of democracy

Topics 015: Industrial Revolution: Rise of Capitalism

At least as important as political revolution in shaping sociological theory was the Industrial Revolution, which swept through many Western societies, mainly in the nineteenth and early twentieth centuries. The Industrial Revolution was not a single event but many interrelated developments that culminated in the transformation of the Western world from a largely agricultural to an overwhelmingly industrial system.

Large numbers of people left farms and agricultural work for the industrial occupations offered in the burgeoning factories. The factories themselves were transformed by a long series of technological improvements. Large economic bureaucracies arose to provide the many services needed by industry and the emerging capitalist economic system. In this economy, the ideal was a free marketplace where the many products of an industrial system could be exchanged. Within this system, a few profited greatly while the majority worked long hours for low wages. A reaction against the industrial system and against capitalism in general followed and led to the labor movement as well as to various radical movements aimed at overthrowing the capitalist system.

The Industrial Revolution, capitalism, and the reaction against them all involved an enormous upheaval in Western society, an upheaval that affected sociologists greatly. Four major figures in the early history of sociological theory—Karl Marx, Max Weber, Emile Durkheim, and Georg Simmel—were preoccupied, as were many lesser thinkers, with these changes and the problems they created for society as a whole. They spent their lives studying these problems, and in many cases they endeavored to develop programs that would help solve them.

Lecture 05**RATIONAL SOCIETY**
(Topic 16-19)**Topic 016: Social and Intellectual Background: Rational Society**

The growth of the scientific mentality was a major stimulus for the birth of sociology. By the dawn of the nineteenth century, the scientific method had already made great advances in the physical sciences. In physics and astronomy it had been established that uniformities in the movements of physical objects, such as planets and falling rocks, could be explained by natural laws that could be discovered through scientific investigation. In biology much attention was given to classifying different species but a major breakthrough occurred with the 1859 publication of Charles Darwin's theory of biological evolution. By this time the notion of a long-term evolutionary process had already been used by numerous social theorists to try to explain the development of modern societies. Many of the new scientific discoveries led to conflict with traditional religious teachings, however, and many early social theorists believed that the influence of traditional religious teachings and practices would decline as scientific knowledge advanced.

The technological developments stimulated by the growth in scientific knowledge helped reinforce the validity of the scientific method. The employment of new production technologies in the emerging factory system and widespread migrations from rural to urban areas represented social changes leading to new kinds of socioeconomic class relations, new forms of exploitation, and numerous social problems. The goal of developing sociology as a scientific discipline resulted in large part from various efforts to understand these long-range and pervasive social transformations.

Topic 017: Societal Development: An Evolutionary Approach

Most of the early sociologists dealt with the process of social evolution in various ways. One of the most notable was the British social theorist Herbert Spencer. He developed an elaborate theory of how societies had evolved over the centuries from simple, small-scale systems to complex, large-scale systems as a result of people's ongoing efforts to improve their overall well-being. This perspective has typically been regarded as highly individualistic. However, Spencer also noted that advances in moral sentiments accompanied the increased size and complexity of social systems. Given the importance of this evolutionary process in insuring social progress, it was important not to interfere with it, such as through excessive government regulation and control, for example. Of course, he regarded Great Britain (or modern European societies in general) as the most advanced in this long evolutionary process. This belief in evolutionary progress became highly influential in both England and America and influenced greatly the early development of American sociology.

Topic 018: Confronting the Non-Rational Aspect of Society

The establishment of sociology may perhaps be seen in part as a result of a struggle to understand, within a rational scientific perspective, the nonrational (or irrational) aspects of human behavior and of society itself. Auguste Comte's "positivist" approach to understanding

society reveals this dilemma between reason and the nonrational. His pioneering theoretical perspective (which reflected the ideas of his one-time mentor, Henri St. Simon) involved the argument that the entire scope of human beings' intellectual history, and each of the various sciences in particular (physical and biological as well as social), had gone through three great stages—the “theological, the metaphysical, and the positive.” Each stage had made an important contribution to progress, but was destined to be replaced by the next stage over the long course of human evolution. Since sociology was the last of the various sciences to reach the final “positive” stage, its “data” would include the advanced knowledge already acquired in all of the other sciences. This means that sociology would be able to provide the most comprehensive explanation of the scientific laws governing intellectual and social progress.

This “positive” approach would enable us to understand social order as well as the stages of progress in society. Social reform efforts must always work within the constraints of the currently existing beliefs and traditions as discovered through empirical investigation. Otherwise, these efforts run the risk of undermining social order instead of promoting progress. Despite his emphasis on systematic empirical research, Comte's own analysis was quite general and highly speculative and would not conform to contemporary standards of rigorous empirical research.

Topic 019:Non-Rational Constraints in Positivistic Environment

Comte's skepticism regarding the power of rational analysis to shape people's motivations, or to serve as the basis for a more enlightened social order, was widespread among nineteenth century intellectuals and is revealed in several of the classical stage. This consideration suggests that a scientific understanding of society must confront the non-rational foundations of people's behavior and society's traditions and the role these play in supporting the moral ideals underlying the social order.

“Positive” approach would enable us to understand social order as well as the stages of progress in society. Not easy to accept the scientific explanations. Work within the constraints of the currently existing beliefs and traditions. Can undermine the scientific progress of society. Each evolutionary stage has worked as a foundation for the next stage. Religious beliefs play the role of unity and social solidarity. There is always a need to conform to the requirements of the social order. Limitations of reason have been recognized by sociologists. Moral values need to be reinforced collectively. Underlying sentiments are more important in motivating human behavior than the intellectual justifications. Scientific understanding of society must confront the non-rational foundations of people's behavior and society's traditions and the role these play in supporting the moral ideals underlying the social order.

Lecture 06**SOCIAL FORCES AND GROWTH OF SCIENCE****(Topic 20-22)****Topic 020: Urbanization as a Social Force**

Partly as a result of the Industrial Revolution, large numbers of people in the nineteenth and twentieth centuries were uprooted from their rural homes and moved to urban settings. This massive migration was caused, in large part, by the jobs created by the industrial system in the urban areas. But it presented many difficulties for those people who had to adjust to urban life. In addition, the expansion of the cities produced a seemingly endless list of urban problems overcrowding, pollution, noise, traffic, and so forth. The nature of urban life and its problems attracted the attention of many early sociologists, especially Max Weber and Georg Simmel. In fact, the first major school of American sociology, the Chicago school, was in large part defined by its concern for the city and its interest in using Chicago as a laboratory in which to study urbanization and its problems.

Topic 021: Religious Change as a Social Force

Social changes brought on by political revolutions, the Industrial Revolution, and urbanization had a profound effect on religiosity. Many early sociologists came from religious backgrounds and were actively, and in some cases professionally, involved in religion. They brought to sociology the same objectives they espoused in their religious lives. They wished to improve people's lives. For some (such as Comte), sociology was transformed into a religion. For others, their sociological theories bore an unmistakable religious imprint. Durkheim wrote one of his major works on religion. Morality played a key role not only in Durkheim's sociology but also in the work of Talcott Parsons. A large portion of Weber's work also was devoted to the religions of the world. Marx, too, had an interest in religiosity, but his orientation was far more critical.

Topic 022: Growth of Science

As sociological theory was being developed, there was an increasing emphasis on science, not only in colleges and universities but in society as a whole. The technological products of science were permeating every sector of life, and science was acquiring enormous prestige. Those associated with the most successful sciences (physics, biology, and chemistry) were accorded honored places in society. Sociologists from the beginning were preoccupied with science, and many wanted to model sociology after the successful physical and biological sciences. However, a debate soon developed between those who wholeheartedly accepted the scientific model and those (such as Weber) who thought that distinctive characteristics of social life made a wholesale adoption of a scientific model difficult and unwise. The issue of the relationship between sociology and science is debated to this day, although even a glance at the major journals in the field, at least in the United States, indicates the predominance of those who favor sociology as a science.

Lecture 07**ENLIGHTENMENT****(Topic 23-26)****Topic 023: Intellectual Forces: Enlightenment**

Although social factors are important, the primary focus of this chapter is the intellectual forces that played a central role in shaping sociological theory. In the real world, of course, intellectual factors cannot be separated from social forces. For example, in the discussion of the Enlightenment that follows, we will find that that movement was intimately related to, and in many cases provided the intellectual basis for, the social changes discussed above.

The many intellectual forces that shaped the development of social theories are discussed within the national context where their influence was primarily felt. We begin with the Enlightenment and its influences on the development of sociological theory in France.

The Enlightenment

It is the view of many observers that the Enlightenment constitutes a critical development in terms of the later evolution of sociology. The Enlightenment was a period of remarkable intellectual development and change in philosophical thought. A number of long-standing ideas and beliefs—many of which related to social life—were overthrown and replaced during the Enlightenment. “Early sociology developed as a reaction to the Enlightenment”.

The thinkers associated with the Enlightenment were influenced, above all, by two intellectual currents—seventeenth-century philosophy and science. Seventeenth-century philosophy was associated with the work of thinkers such as René Descartes, Thomas Hobbes, and John Locke. The emphasis was on producing grand, general, and very abstract systems of ideas that made rational sense. The later thinkers associated with the Enlightenment did not reject the idea that systems of ideas should be general and should make rational sense, but they did make greater efforts to derive their ideas from the real world and to test them there. In other words, they wanted to combine empirical research with reason. The model for this was science, especially Newtonian physics.

Overall, the Enlightenment was characterized by the belief that people could comprehend and control the universe by means of reason and empirical research. The view was that because the physical world was dominated by natural laws, it was likely that the social world was too. Thus it was up to the philosopher, using reason and research, to discover these social laws. Once they understood how the social world worked, the Enlightenment thinkers had a practical goal—the creation of a “better,” more rational world.

Topic 024: Reaction to Enlightenment

On the surface, we might think that French classical sociological theory, like Marx's theory, was directly and positively influenced by the Enlightenment. French sociology became rational, empirical, scientific, and change-oriented, but not before it was also shaped by a set of ideas that developed in reaction to the Enlightenment. In Seidman's view, "The ideology of the counter-Enlightenment represented a virtual inversion of Enlightenment liberalism. In place of modernist premises, we can detect in the Enlightenment critics a strong anti-modernist sentiment."

The most extreme form of opposition to Enlightenment ideas was French Catholic counterrevolutionary philosophy, as represented by the ideas of Louis de Bonald (1754–1840) and Joseph de Maistre (1753–1821). These men were reacting against not only the Enlightenment but also the French Revolution, which they saw partly as a product of the kind of thinking characteristic of the Enlightenment. Bonald, for example, was disturbed by the revolutionary changes and yearned for a return to the peace and harmony of the Middle Ages. In this view, God was the source of society; therefore, reason, which was so important to the Enlightenment philosophers, was seen as inferior to traditional religious beliefs. Furthermore, it was believed that because God had created society, people should not tamper with it and should not try to change a holy creation. By extension, Bonald opposed anything that undermined such traditional institutions as patriarchy, the monogamous family, the monarchy, and the Catholic Church.

Topic 025-026: Outcome of Reaction to Enlightenment

The conservatives turned away from what they considered the "naive" rationalism of the Enlightenment. They not only recognized the irrational aspects of social life but also assigned them positive value. Thus they regarded such phenomena as tradition, imagination, emotionalism, and religion as useful and necessary components of social life. In that they disliked upheaval and sought to retain the existing order, they deplored developments such as the French Revolution and the Industrial Revolution, which they saw as disruptive forces. The conservatives tended to emphasize social order, an emphasis that became one of the central themes of the work of several sociological theorists.

Emphasis on social order in society became one of the central themes of the work of several sociological theorists. Reactionaries focused on individual whereas sociologists focused on whole entities like society in itself. Reaction by conservatives provided the basis for the development of classical French sociological theory. Focus started on:

1. Emphasis on society rather than an individual. Society not simply an aggregation of individuals.
2. Society was the most important unit of analysis; Society produced individual through socialization.
3. A society has component parts such as: roles, positions, relationships, structures, and institutions. Individuals were seen as doing little more than filling these units within society.
4. The parts of society were seen as interrelated and interdependent. Tempering with one part will affect the whole. Positive/negative outcomes of change.

5. Change was seen as a threat not only to society and its components but also to the individuals in society. Due to disruption of Institutions people are likely to suffer.
6. The general tendency was to see the various large-scale components of society as useful for both society and the individuals in it.
7. Small units, such as the family, the neighborhood, and religious and occupational groups, also were seen as essential to individuals and society. Primary group relations needed to survive in modern societies.
8. There was a tendency to see various modern social changes, such as industrialization, urbanization, and bureaucratization) as having disorganizing effects. Such changes were viewed with fear and anxiety. There was an emphasis on developing ways of dealing with their disruptive effects.
9. While most of the feared changes were leading to a more rational society, the conservative reaction led to an emphasis on the importance of non-rational factors (ritual, ceremony, and worship, for example) in social life.
10. The conservatives supported the existence of a hierarchical system in society. It was seen as important to society that there be a differential system of status and reward.

Lecture 08**THE DEVELOPMENT OF FRENCH SOCIOLOGY****(Topic 27-31)**

The actual founding of sociology as a distinctive discipline— specifically, to the work of four French thinkers: Alexis de Tocqueville, Claude Saint- Simon, Auguste Comte, and especially Emile Durkheim.

Topic 027: The Development of French Sociology: Alexis de Tocqueville (1805-1859)

- His work is product of the Enlightenment.
- Often seen as a political scientist, not as a sociologist.
- Many have not perceived the existence of a social theory in his work.
- Three interrelated issues lie at the heart of Tocqueville's theory.

Three interrelated issues lie at the heart of Tocqueville's theory. As a product of the Enlightenment, he is first and foremost a great supporter of, and advocate for, *freedom*. However, he is much more critical of *equality*, which he sees as tending to produce mediocrity in comparison to the higher-quality outcomes associated with the aristocrats (he himself was an aristocrat) of a prior, more in egalitarian, era. More important, equality and mediocrity are also linked to what most concerns him, and that is the growth of *centralization*, especially in the government, and the threat centralized government poses to freedom. In his view, it was the inequality of the prior age, the power of the aristocrats that acted to keep government centralization in check. However, with the demise of aristocrats, and the rise of greater equality, there are no groups capable of countering the ever-present tendency toward centralization. The mass of largely equal people are too "servile" to oppose this trend. Furthermore, Tocqueville links equality to "individualism" (an important concept that he claimed to "invent" and for which he is credited), and the resulting individualists are far less interested in the well-being of the larger "community" than were the aristocrats who preceded them.

Equality leads to individualism

- "Individualists" are far less interested in the well-being of the larger "community" than were the aristocrats who preceded them.
- Critical of democracy and especially socialism.

Democracy's commitment to freedom was ultimately threatened by its parallel commitment to equality and its tendency toward centralized government. In socialism far greater commitment to equality, greater likelihood of government centralization, that poses a far greater threat to freedom. Country run by centralized government through bureaucracy.

Topic 028: The Development of French Sociology: Claude Henri Saint Simon

The most interesting aspect of Saint-Simon was his significance to the development of *both* conservative (like Comte's) and radical Marxian theory. On the conservative side, Saint-Simon

wanted to preserve society as it was, but he did not seek a return to life as it had been in the Middle Ages, as did Bonald and Maistre. In addition, he was a *positivist*, which meant that he believed that the study of social phenomena should employ the same scientific techniques that were used in the natural sciences. On the radical side, Saint-Simon saw the need for socialist reforms, especially the centralized planning of the economic system. But Saint-Simon did not go nearly as far as Marx did later. Although he, like Marx, saw the capitalists superseding the feudal nobility, he felt it inconceivable that the working class would come to replace the capitalists. Many of Saint-Simon's ideas are found in Comte's work, but Comte developed them in a more systematic fashion.

Topic 029-030: The Development of French Sociology: Auguste Comte (1798-1857)

Comte was the first to use the term *sociology*. He believed that the study of sociology should be scientific, just as many classical theorists did and most contemporary sociologists do.

Comte was greatly disturbed by the anarchy that pervaded French society and was critical of those thinkers who had spawned both the Enlightenment and the French Revolution. He developed his scientific view, "positivism," or "positive philosophy," to combat what he considered to be the negative and destructive philosophy of the Enlightenment. Comte was in line with, and influenced by, the French counterrevolutionary Catholics (especially Bonald and Maistre). However, his work can be set apart from theirs on at least two grounds. First, he did not think it possible to return to the Middle Ages; advances in science and industry made that impossible. Second, he developed a much more sophisticated theoretical system than his predecessors, one that was adequate to shape a good portion of early sociology.

Comte developed *social physics*, or what in 1839 he called *sociology* (Pickering, 2000). The use of the term *social physics* made it clear that Comte sought to model sociology after the "hard sciences." This new science, which in his view would ultimately become *the* dominant science, was to be concerned with both social statics (existing social structures) and social dynamics (social change). Although both involved the search for laws of social life, he felt that social dynamics was more important than social statics. This focus on change reflected his interest in social reform, particularly reform of the ills created by the French Revolution and the Enlightenment. Comte did not urge evolutionary change, because he felt the natural evolution of society would make things better. Reforms were needed only to assist the process a bit.

This leads us to the cornerstone of Comte's approach—his evolutionary theory, or the *law of the three stages*. The theory proposes that there are three intellectual stages through which the world has gone throughout its history. According to Comte, not only does the world go through this process, but groups, societies, sciences, individuals, and even minds go through the same three stages. The *theological stage* is the first, and it characterized the world prior to 1300. During this period, the major idea system emphasized the belief that supernatural powers and religious figures, modeled after humankind, are at the root of everything. In particular, the social and physical world is seen as produced by God. The second stage is the *metaphysical stage*, which occurred roughly between 1300 and 1800. This era was characterized by the belief that abstract forces like "nature," rather than personalized gods, explain virtually everything. Finally, in 1800 the world entered the *positivistic stage*, characterized by belief in science. People now tended to

give up the search for absolute causes (God or nature) and concentrated instead on observation of the social and physical world in the search for the laws governing them. Comte was in the forefront of the development of positivistic sociology. To Jonathan Turner, Comte's positivism emphasized that "the social universe is amenable to the development of abstract laws that can be tested through the careful collection of data," and "these abstract laws will denote the basic and generic properties of the social universe and they will specify their 'natural relations' ". As we will see, a number of classical theorists (especially Spencer and Durkheim) shared Comte's interest in the discovery of the laws of social life. While positivism remains important in contemporary sociology, it has come under attack from a number of quarters.

Topic 031: The Development of French Sociology: Emile Durkheim 1858-1917

Durkheim – an academician

Developed an increasingly solid academic base for himself and for sociology. His work ultimately became a dominant force in the development of sociology in general and of sociological theory in particular.

Social order necessary

French revolution, industrial revolution, enlightenment disrupted the social order. Devoted to the study of social order. Problems not inherent. Reduce the disorder through social reforms. No revolutions.

Social facts

Durkheim developed a distinctive conception of the subject matter of sociology and then tested it in an empirical study. In *The Rules of Sociological Method* (1895/1982), Durkheim argued that it is the special task of sociology to study what he called *social facts* (Nielsen, 2005a, 2007a). He conceived of social facts as forces (Takla and Pope, 1985) and structures that are external to, and coercive of, the individual. The study of these large-scale structures and forces—for example, institutionalized law and shared moral beliefs—and their impact on people became the concern of many later sociological theorists (Parsons, for example). In *Suicide* (1897/1951), Durkheim reasoned that if he could link such an individual behavior as suicide to social causes (social facts), he would have made a persuasive case for the importance of the discipline of sociology. But Durkheim did not examine why individual *A* or *B* committed suicide; rather, he was interested in the causes of differences in suicide rates among groups, regions, countries, and different categories of people (for example, married and single).

His basic argument was that it was the nature of, and changes in, social facts that led to differences in suicide rates. For example, a war or an economic depression would create a collective mood of depression that would in turn lead to increases in suicide rates. More will be said on this subject in Chapter 3, but the key point is that Durkheim developed a distinctive view of sociology and sought to demonstrate its usefulness in a scientific study of suicide.

Explaining behavior scientifically

A distinctive view of sociology emerged with the scientific explanation of behavior. Demonstrated its usefulness in scientific study human actions. Established sociology as an academic discipline in France.

Lecture 09**THE DEVELOPMENT OF GERMAN SOCIOLOGY****(Topic 32-35)****Topic 032: The Development of German Sociology: Karl Marx (1818-1883)**

Marx was not a sociologist and did not consider himself one. Although his work is too broad to be encompassed by the term *sociology*, there is a sociological theory to be found in Marx's work. From the beginning, there were those who were heavily influenced by Marx, and there has been a continuous strand of Marxian sociology, primarily in Europe. But for the majority of early sociologists, his work was a negative force, something against which to shape their sociology. Until very recently, sociological theory, especially in America, has been characterized by either hostility to or ignorance of Marxian theory.

Marx offered a theory of capitalist society based on his image of the basic nature of human beings. Marx believed that people are basically productive; that is, in order to survive, people need to work in, and with, nature. In so doing, they produce the food, clothing, tools, shelter, and other necessities that permit them to live. Their productivity is a perfectly natural way by which they express basic creative impulses. Furthermore, these impulses are expressed in concert with other people; in other words, people are inherently social. They need to work together to produce what they need to survive.

Capitalism is a structure (or, more accurately, a series of structures) that erects barriers between an individual and the production process, the products of that process, and other people; ultimately, it even divides the individual himself or herself. This is the basic meaning of the concept of *alienation*: it is the breakdown of the natural interconnection among people and what they produce. Alienation occurs because capitalism has evolved into a two-class system in which a few capitalists own the production process, the products, and the labor time of those who work for them. Instead of naturally producing for themselves, people produce unnaturally in capitalist society for a small group of capitalists. Intellectually, Marx was very concerned with the structures of capitalism and their oppressive impact on actors. Politically, he was led to an interest in emancipating people from the oppressive structures of capitalism.

Marx actually spent very little time dreaming about what a utopian socialist state would look like. He was more concerned with helping to bring about the demise of capitalism. He believed that the contradictions and conflicts within capitalism would lead dialectically to its ultimate collapse, but he did not think that the process was inevitable. People had to act at the appropriate times and in the appropriate ways for socialism to come into being. The capitalists had great resources at their disposal to forestall the coming of socialism, but they could be overcome by the concerted action of a class-conscious proletariat. What would the proletariat create in the process? What is socialism? Most basically, it is a society in which, for the first time, people could approach Marx's ideal image of productivity. With the aid of modern technology, people could interact harmoniously with nature and other people to create what they needed to survive.

Topic 033: The Development of German Sociology: Max Weber (1884-1920)

Weber's work was fundamentally a theory of the process of rationalization. Weber was interested in the general issue of why institutions in the Western world had grown progressively more rational while powerful barriers seemed to prevent a similar development in the rest of the world.

Although rationality is used in many different ways in Weber's work, what interests us here is a process involving one of four types identified by Kalberg (1980, 1990, 1994; see also Brubaker, 1984; D. Levine, 1981a), *formal rationality*. Formal rationality involves, as was usually the case with Weber, a concern for the actor making choices of means and ends. However, in this case, that choice is made in reference to universally applied rules, regulations, and laws. These, in turn, are derived from various large-scale structures, especially bureaucracies and the economy. Weber developed his theories in the context of a large number of comparative historical studies of the West, China, India, and many other regions of the world. In those studies, he sought to delineate the factors that helped bring about or impede the development of rationalization. Weber saw the bureaucracy (and the historical process of bureaucratization) as the classic example of rationalization, but rationalization is perhaps best illustrated today by the fast-food restaurant. The fast-food restaurant is a formally rational system in which people (both workers and customers) are led to seek the most rational means to ends. The drive-through window, for example, is a rational means by which workers can dispense, and customers can obtain, food quickly and efficiently. Speed and efficiency are dictated by the fast-food restaurants and the rules and regulations by which they operate.

The Protestant Ethic and the Spirit of Capitalism:

- Predestination. Ascetic life.
- Break the 'feudal spirit' i.e. luxurious life.
- Combining the two led to development of capitalism.
- Knowledge rationalized capitalist action i.e. ascetic and world oriented.
- Capitalism another system of ideas.

Debating positivism:

- Debated positivism.
- Application of natural science methods questioned.
- Special method to study human beings and culture.
- Objectivity in the study of society is not possible.

Topic 034-035: The Development of German Sociology: George Simmel (1858-1918)**Society as forms of interaction:**

One of the founding fathers of Sociology. Sociology as subject or profession did not exist. Interaction was a central concept of his discussion. He said that society as product of interaction. Description of interaction is description of society. There are different forms of interaction.

Forms of groups

The **Dyad** is social group with two members.

The **Triad** is a social group with three members. It is more stable than the dyad.

Different forms of interaction

- Different interaction settings.
- Analyze/understand these different interaction units.
- Forms: Cooperation, division of labor, party. Dyads, triads.
- Why these groups? Motives.
- Who are the interactants?
- Sociology to study these forms of interaction.

Sociology is the science of forms of social interaction. Society is dynamic: constantly emerges in forms of interaction. No interaction, no society.

Social differentiation: The division of labor

- Social differentiation: Social phenomenon is separated into various parts. Theme.
- Parts are either similar or different in type and function.
- Spencer considered society as super organism.
- Integration and differentiation in organism.
- Society progresses through differentiation.

Division of Labor

- Differentiation leads to division of labor. Economical.
- Society as an organism.
- Time and energy saved can be invested elsewhere.
- Division of labor leads to specialization.
- Increasing differentiation.
- Division of labor and differentiation qualities of progress. Modern society.

Individuality: A product of social differentiation

- Growth of society leads to differentiation, division of labor, and specialization.
- Specialty provides new identity – individuality to persons, groups, and societies.
- Two individualities: Two identities.
- Different but similar. Paradoxical identity.

Individuality and modernity

- Individual freedom.
- Issues: capitalist economy, modern urban society (conflicts, loneliness, alienation)

Lecture 10**THE DEVELOPMENT OF BRITISH SOCIOLOGY AND ITALIAN SCHOLAR****(Topic 36-39)**

This lecture focuses on development of sociology in England. Continental European ideas had their impact on early British sociology, but more important were native influences.

Topic 036-037: Herbert Spencer (1820-1930)

It is possible to identify at least two major evolutionary perspectives in Spencer's work. The first of these theories relates primarily to the increasing size of society. Society grows through both the multiplication of individuals and the union of groups (compounding). The increasing size of society brings with it larger and more differentiated social structures, as well as the increasing differentiation of the functions they perform. In addition to their growth in size, societies evolve through compounding, that is, by unifying more and more adjoining groups. Thus, Spencer talks of the evolutionary movement from simple to compound, doubly-compound, and trebly-compound societies.

Spencer also offers a theory of evolution from *militant* to *industrial* societies. Earlier, militant societies are defined by being structured for offensive and defensive warfare. While Spencer was critical of warfare, he felt that in an earlier stage it was functional in bringing societies together (for example, through military conquest) and in creating the larger aggregates of people necessary for the development of industrial society. However, with the emergence of industrial society, warfare ceases to be functional and serves to impede further evolution. Industrial society is based on friendship, altruism, elaborate specialization, recognition for achievements rather than the characteristics one is born with, and voluntary cooperation among highly disciplined individuals. Such a society is held together by voluntary contractual relations and, more important, by a strong common morality. The government's role is restricted and focuses only on what people ought not to do. Obviously, modern industrial societies are less warlike than their militant predecessors. Although Spencer sees a general evolution in the direction of industrial societies, he also recognizes that it is possible that there will be periodic regressions to warfare and more militant societies.

In his ethical and political writings, Spencer offered other ideas on the evolution of society. For one thing, he saw society as progressing toward an ideal, or perfect, moral state. For another, he argued that the fittest societies survive and that unfit societies should be permitted to die off. The result of this process is adaptive upgrading for the world as a whole. Thus Spencer offered a rich and complicated set of ideas on social evolution. His ideas first enjoyed great success, then were rejected for many years, and more recently have been revived with the rise of neo evolutionary sociological theories.

Society as an organism

- Analogy between society and biological organism.
- Comparing organic (bodily) and super-organic (societal) organization.

- Both are systems of organization.. Components.
- Society has structure, function, and transformation.
- Society must be studied as a thing – entity existing in itself.

Explaining the evolution of society

- Both grow and develop.
- Both increase in size.
- Progressive differentiation in structure and functions.
- In both, part and whole are interdependent.
- Each part is micro-society or organism in itself.
- Life of the whole can be destroyed, parts may live for a while.

Analysis of super-organic dynamics

- Dynamic properties of super-organic systems.
- System growth, differentiation, and integration.
- Adaptation to environment.
- Whole system is dynamically functional.

Topic 038-039: The Italian Scholar: Vilfredo Pareto (1848-1923)

We close this sketch of early, primarily conservative, European sociological theory with a brief mention of one Italian sociologist, Vilfredo Pareto (1848–1923). Pareto was influential in his time, but his contemporary relevance is minimal (for one exception, see Powers, 1986). There was a brief outburst of interest in Pareto's (1935) work in the 1930s, when the major American theorist, Talcott Parsons, devoted as much attention to him as he gave to Weber and Durkheim. However, in recent years, except for a few of his major concepts, Pareto also has receded in importance and contemporary relevance (Femia, 1995).

Pareto developed his “major ideas as a refutation of Marx”. In fact, Pareto was rejecting not only Marx but also a good portion of Enlightenment philosophy. For example, whereas the Enlightenment philosophers emphasized rationality, Pareto emphasized the role of nonrational factors such as human instincts. This emphasis also was tied to his rejection of Marxian theory. That is, because nonrational, instinctual factors were so important and so unchanging, it was unrealistic to hope to achieve dramatic social changes with an economic revolution.

Pareto also developed a theory of social change that stood in stark contrast to Marxian theory. Whereas Marx's theory focused on the role of the masses, Pareto offered an elite theory of social change, which held that society inevitably is dominated by a small elite that operates on the basis of enlightened self-interest. It rules over the masses of people, who are dominated by non-rational forces. Because they lack rational capacities, the masses, in Pareto's system, are unlikely to be a revolutionary force. Social change occurs when the elite begins to degenerate and is replaced by a new elite derived from the non-governing elite or higher elements of the masses. Once the new elite is in power, the process begins anew. Thus, we have a cyclical theory of social change instead of the directional theories offered by Marx, Comte, Spencer, and others. In

addition, Pareto's theory of change largely ignores the plight of the masses. Elites come and go, but the lot of the masses remains the same.

This theory, however, was not Pareto's lasting contribution to sociology. That lay in his scientific conception of sociology and the social world: "My wish is to construct a system of sociology on the model of celestial mechanics [astronomy], physics, chemistry" (cited in Hook, 1965:57). Briefly, Pareto conceived of society as a system in equilibrium, a whole consisting of interdependent parts. A change in one part was seen as leading to changes in other parts of the system. Pareto's systemic conception of society was the most important reason Parsons devoted so much attention to Pareto's work in his 1937 book, *The Structure of Social Action*, and it was Pareto's most important influence on Parsons's thinking. Fused with similar views held by those who had an organic image of society (Comte, Durkheim, and Spencer, for example), Pareto's theory played a central role in the development of Parsons's theory and, more generally, in structural functionalism. Although few modern sociologists now read Pareto's work, it can be seen as a rejection of the Enlightenment and of Marxism and as offering an elite theory of social change that stands in opposition to the Marxian perspective.

Lecture 11**THE DEVELOPMENT OF AMERICAN SOCIOLOGY-I****(Topic 40-44)****Topic 040: George Herbert Mead (1862-1931)****Sociology in USA**

During the 1880s, sociology courses began to appear. First department of sociology was founded at the University of Kansas in 1889. In 1892, the University of Chicago set up the new department of sociology. Chicago department became the first important center of American sociology. Early American sociologists described as political liberals. Belief in the freedom and welfare of the individual. Many sociologists adopted an evolutionary view of social progress.

George Herbert Mead (1863-1931)

G. H. Mead (1863-1931) developed a theory of social behaviorism to explain how social experience creates individual personality. There is the power of environment to shape behavior. Mead's central concept is self that part of an individual's personality composed of self-awareness and self-image.

Interactionism

- The social whole precedes the individual mind both logically and temporally.
 - The part is explained in terms of the whole, not the whole in terms of the part or parts.
 - A thinking, self-conscious individual is logically impossible without a prior social group.
- Interaction
- Society → thinking individual → self-image.
 - Self as generalized other.

Thinking consists of the conversations we carry on in our minds with ourselves about all sorts of things, especially about ourselves. As a child, you eventually developed cognitively to the point at which you were able to use one symbol (a doll, for example) to represent a parent and another symbol (another doll, for example) that represent you. Only then you could engage in **role taking** – imagining being someone else and looking from that person's perspective back at yourself as a social object. That is the imitation of the role of others. Out of the early social interactions we develop our ability to communicate, our ability to think, and our social self-emerge.

Topic 041: Talcott Parsons (1902-1979)**A pivotal figure of contemporary sociology**

After getting degree from Germany, Parsons started his career at Harvard. He wrote 17 books and 200+ papers. He is also known as structural functionalist.

Society as a social system

- Social system exists *sui generis* i.e. on its own.
- Society, a system, exists independent of individuals.
- Society has structure, composed of subsystems.
- Subsystems perform functions.
- Contribute to the integration of the whole.

Subsystems perform functions

- Integrative: norms that bind the individuals to society.
- Pattern maintenance: cultural system of values.
- Goal attainment: personality system – the basis of differentiation.
- Adaptation: humans adapt.

Society as a living system

- Biological analogy.
- System is not static. Adaptive. Differentiation or division of labor as needed.
- Tendency towards equilibrium. Homeostasis.

Topic 042-044: Robert K. Merton (1910-2003)**Functionalism**

Functionalism yet different from Parsons. Same system of functionalism inapplicable to all systems. Universal functionalism questioned. All functions may not benefit the society as a whole. Indispensability of function for the survival of social system questioned.

Manifest and latent functions

Manifest: Intended consequences/functions. Participants are aware.

Latent: Unintended consequences/functions.

Criteria: intentionality + awareness. Four types:

- Intended + recognized.
- Intended + unrecognized.
- Unintended + recognized.
- Unintended + unrecognized.

Dysfunctions

- Beneficial and harmful functions (dysfunctions).
- Rejection of the priori assumption i.e. universal functionality.
- Out of four, find out empirically the type of function.

- Conceptual guideline for empirical research. Not a theory.

Middle-range theory

Abandon the idea of all-encompassing theory. Focus on practical problems. Develop special theories applicable to limited ranges. Like theories of deviant behavior.

Consolidate MR theories: General theory

- MR theories are limited to set of assumptions.
- Deduce hypotheses. Test.
- MR views can be consolidated into more general theory.
- Fill in the blanks” between raw empiricism. Develop grand theory.

Empiricism to theory

- Merton quoted the examples of MR theories given by Durkheim (Suicide) and Weber (Protestant Ethic and the Spirit of Capitalism).
- His own theories like reference group theory, deviance, bureaucratic personality.

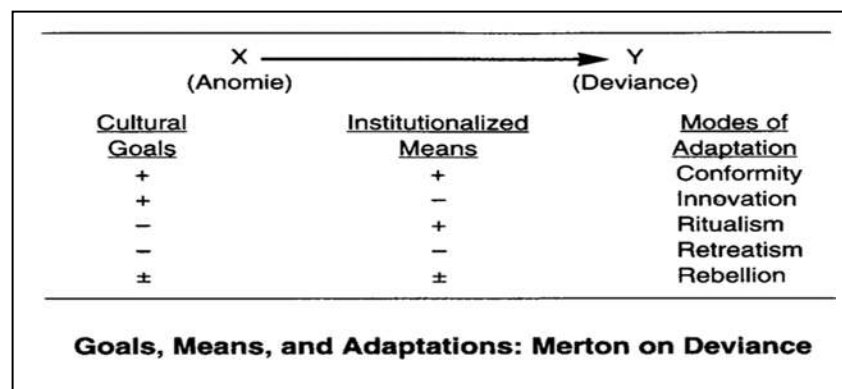
Cultural goals (CGs) and institutionalized means (Im)s

- CGs and IMs: The two concepts in functionalism.
- Used anomie as a major X variable.
- Anomie usually means normlessness. But
- Merton used it as a discontinuity between the cultural goals and the available legitimate mean to reach them.

Theory of deviance

- Monetary success – a cultural goal in USA.
- Non availability of means to reach.
- The resulting anomie is dysfunctional for American society as well as for the groups who lack means.
- Source of strain for the system.
- Resultant deviance. Use some mode of adaptation.

Modes of Adoption



R. K. Merton (1968) pointed out that the people who experience strain are likely to feel *anomie*, a sense of norm-less-ness. Because the dominant norms (for example work, education) don't seem to be getting them anywhere, they have difficult time identifying with them. They may even feel wronged by the system, and its rules may seem illegitimate. Matching culturally approved goals to culturally approved means creates strain and people deviate from the norms. So

Access to the approved means to achieve the material success varies by the social class structure. It creates stress especially for the lower class youth.

As part of the survival youth will look for success in getting work through legitimate or illegitimate means because "success (goal) is more important than how (means) success is achieved." For this purpose they could adopt different ways, and Merton called these as modes of adaptation.

Innovation: Robbery, burglary, drugs.

Ritualism: Lack of interest in success but supports the means.

Retreatism: Escapism, narcotic addiction

Rebellion: Vandalism, senseless violent crimes (counter culture).

Lecture 12**THE DEVELOPMENT OF AMERICAN SOCIOLOGY-II****(Topic 45-49)****Topic 045-047: Charles H. Cooley (1864-1929)**

Charles Horton Cooley (1864–1929) was born in Michigan and was associated with the University of Michigan for all of his professional life. Like Mead, his ideas also contributed to the development of symbolic interaction theory. His perspective on the relation between a person's self-concept and face-to-face interaction within primary groups is expressed in his frequently cited concept of the "looking glass self" (Cooley ([1902] 1964). This metaphor refers to the way one's identity is formed from the reflections one sees of oneself in the reactions of others. This concept is clearly parallel to Mead's insights regarding the social origins of one's Self-concept. More than Mead, however, Cooley stressed the importance of our emotional reactions to these responses. When we perceive the reactions of others as indicating either approval or disapproval, we feel pride or shame as a result.

Cooley ([1902] 1964) also pointed out that our identity may extend beyond ourselves to include our family, friends, and primary group relationships. To speak of "*my* family" or "*my* group" is to expand our sense of self to include these relationships. The groups with which we identify most strongly in this way are likely to be primary groups. Such groups differ from secondary groups in that they are characterized by intimate face-to-face relationships. It is through primary groups (especially the family) that individuals are bound together with a sense of unity and cohesiveness that finds expression in the mutual regard (or sympathy) they have for one another in their common life.

Interaction

- Interaction – the cementing link between groups.
- Through interaction groups share common ideas and conceptions.
- Need language (gestures, symbols) for communication.
- May be called symbolic interaction.

Language

- Humans develop language (signs, symbols, gestures).
- Out of reading/understanding each other's gestures, people read each other's mind.
- Interpret each other's dispositions (inclinations).
- Society is an interweaving and interworking of mental selves.
- Out of communication establish social relations.

Self-consciousness

- Humans have the capacity for self-consciousness.
- Capacity emerges through interaction with others in groups.

- Identify what one is.
- Once it exists, it allows people to organize themselves in society.

The looking glass self

Self as one's ability to see and recognize oneself as an object. It needs a critical insight. Using gestures of others to see themselves.

Self-image: like one's reflection in a looking glass. Reactions of others provide a reflection of one's image. Reading the gestures of others. Humans see themselves as an object. In imagination we perceive in another's mind some thought of our appearance. This imagination affects us. Others peoples' gestures as looking glass. People:

1. Imagine their appearance in the eyes of others.
2. Sense the judgment of others.
3. Have self-feeling about themselves.

Through the process of interaction self-consciousness, and self-feeling develops.

The emergence of Self: Process

For Cooley the life history of an individual is evolutionary. Individual grows. From physical being one grows into social being. It is a process. Socialization process helps in interaction with others.

- Communication and reading others' gestures.
- Roles played in the presence of others.
- Others represent a mirror.
- What we think of ourselves depends on what we think others think of us.
- Our perception of how we look to others.
- Our perception in their judgment of how we look.
- Our feelings about these judgments.
- *Self-feelings, self-concept, self-image, self-identity*
- Learn to play different roles

Topic 048-049: C. Wright Mills (1916-1962)

Sociological imagination

It is Critical of functionalism. The "sociological imagination" should uncover the connections between individuals' personal troubles and the overall structure of society. Use critical thinking. The troubles individuals experience are rooted in the way society is organized. Distinction between *personal troubles* and *public issues*.

Analyze social structures critically

- Social structures (SS) look to be negatively functional.
- SS prevent people, as human beings, from:

- Meeting their basic needs, and
- Developing their full potential.
- Do the critical analysis.

Large scale bureaucratic organizations rule

- Individuals work as part of big organizations.
- They adapt to the demands of these organizational structures.
- Adaptation leads to their limited awareness of how their freedom is restricted.
- Organizations are controlled by few elites who may not be property owners.

The power elite

- Central thesis: Country governed by power elite.
- Basically three types:
- The “corporate rich,” the military “warlords,” and the “political directorate.”
- They represent economic, military and political institutions
- All of them form an integrated and unified power elite.
- Determine the basic structure and direction of the society

Elite group

- Large size and highly centralized structure
- No conscious conspiracy among these elites.
- Elites may disagree within and between groups.
- May not share exactly the same interests.
- Their decisions and actions have wide-ranging ramifications for one another as well as for the overall society.

Elite interests supreme

- Can be conflict between elite interests and the overall welfare of society.
- Society sharply divided horizontally between the powerful and powerless.

Lecture 13**THE DEVELOPMENT OF AMERICAN SOCIOLOGY-III**
(Topic 50-53)**George C. Homans (1910-1989)**

Homans's basic view was that the heart of sociology lies in the study of individual behavior and interaction. He was little interested in consciousness or in the various kinds of large-scale structures and institutions that were of concern to most sociologists. His main interest was instead in the reinforcement patterns, the history of rewards and costs that lead people to do what they do. Basically, Homans argued that people continue to do what they have found to be rewarding in the past. Conversely, they cease doing what has proved to be costly in the past. To understand behavior, we need to understand an individual's history of rewards and costs. Thus, the focus of sociology should be not on consciousness or on social structures and institutions but rather on patterns of reinforcement.

- Market transactions and personal relations have similarities.
- Both governed by utilitarian perspective. Cost – benefit approach. Exchange.
- Avoid the pain, maximize the pleasure. Rational choice.
- Same principle governs social relations.

Operant conditioning

- Operant conditioning model drawn from behavioral psychology. Past experiences.
- Human beings provide positive or negative reinforcements of various types to one another as they interact. Hence:
- Process mutually shapes one another's behavior.
- Can also be for future rewards (Area of economics)
- Investment for future rewards.
- Expectations for future based on past experiences.

Basic exchange propositions

- Dynamics of exchange.
- Portrayed by three basic concepts: (1) activities, (2) interaction, and (3) sentiments.
- The three concepts are interrelated.
- Different components of social systems are linked through mutual interdependence.
- Functionalist approach.

Basic exchange propositions

- Individuals are more likely to perform an activity the more valuable they perceive the reward of that activity to be.
- The more often a particular action of a person is rewarded, the more likely the person is to perform that action.

- The more a situation approximates one in which activity has been rewarded in the past, the more likely a particular activity will be emitted.
- The more often in the recent past a person has received a particular reward, the less valuable any further unit of that reward becomes for that person.
- The more a situation approximates one in which activity has been rewarded in the past, the more likely a particular activity will be emitted.
- When a person's action does not receive the reward expected or receive punishment that was not expected, he or she will be angry and become more likely to perform aggressive behavior.

Exchange in everyday life

Exchange of greetings. Informal exchange.

- Social approval –expression of positive sentiments.
- One's social influence reflects his or her ability to reward another for compliance.
- Gratitude in exchange.
- Exchange at group level.
- Individuals in cooperative groups exchange social approval as they contribute to group goals.
- Individuals whose contributions are extremely valuable but are in scarce supply will be rewarded with esteem.
- Individuals interact with on the basis of rewards and punishments.
- Can be interaction without choice.
- Indirect exchange i.e. institutional exchange.

Lecture 14**THE DEVELOPMENT OF AMERICAN SOCIOLOGY-IV****(Topic 54-59)****Peter M. Blau (1918-2002)****Social attraction**

Social attraction is the force that induces human beings to establish social associations on their own. Association is expected to be rewarding. Rewarding intrinsically or extrinsically or both. Mutual attraction leads to exchange relations. This is social exchange at Micro level. Visible in simple society.

Exchange and Power in Social Life (1964)

Focused on the structure of the associations that result from people's exchange transactions. Basic exchange processes generate complex structures. A transition from the micro to the macro level. Complex structures are based on imbalanced exchanges.

Dialectical exchange

- Contradictions in exchange.
- Rationality with a different meaning. Utilitarianism.
- Imbalances in exchange transactions give rise to differences in status and power. Potential conflict.
- Such power structures provide the foundation for larger (macro) level structures.

Basic exchange principles***Rationality principle:***

The profit people expect from one another in emitting a particular activity, the more likely they are to emit that activity.

Reciprocity principles:

A. The more people have exchanged rewards with one another, the more likely are reciprocal obligations to emerge and guide subsequent exchange among these people. May be called principle of social attraction.

B. The more the reciprocal obligations of an exchange relationships are violated, the more disposed the deprived parties are to sanction negatively those violating the norm of reciprocity.

Justice principles:

A. The more exchange relations have been established, the more likely they are to be governed by norms of *fair exchange*.

B. The less norms of fairness are realized in an exchange relationship, the more disposed deprived parties are to sanction negatively those violating the norms.

Marginal utility principle:

The more expected rewards have been forthcoming from the emission of a particular activity, the less valuable the activity is and the less likely its emission is.

Imbalance principle:

The more stabilized and balanced are one set of exchange relations among social units, the more likely are other exchange relations to become imbalanced and unstable.

Mediating values and institutionalization

- People enter into exchange for deriving reward: An attraction.
- Some have more valuable resources to offer than others.
- Resources lead to differentiation of power.
- Those with resources, others need, can ask for any kind of compliance.

Conditions of differentiation of power

- In case a person who is in need of recurrent services from an associate, has nothing to offer in exchange, there are four alternatives for him:
 1. He may force the other to give him help;
 2. He may obtain the help he needs from other source;
 3. He may find ways to get along without such help; and
 4. He must subordinate himself to the other and comply with his wishes.

Fourth alternative has far reaching consequences i.e. The acceptance of subordination. Power. Power is like a “credit card.”

Social exchange and conflict

- Differences in power is potential for conflict.
- Group norms regulate SE.
- Norms of fair exchange – justice.
- Norms govern the subordinate- superordinate power relations.
- Relations become imbalanced when norms violated by the powerful.

Deprivation of fair rate of exchange

- Imbalance leads to conflict.
- Dialectical approach.
- Can be collective experience of imbalance – feeling of deprivation – potential for opposition – conflict.

- To oppose the powerful by the powerless may become a noble and worthy deed – an ideal – ideological opposition.

Solidarity among subordinates

The greater the sense of solidarity among subordinates, the more they can define their opposition as a noble and worthy cause, and the more likely they are to oppose those in power. The resultant conflict. The conflict may end in revolt – revolution. Dialectic.

Direct and indirect exchange

DE: reciprocal transactions between persons, groups, or collectivities, usually at micro level. Simple society.

IE: Complex pattern of exchanges among collectivities and between them and individual members, at macro level.

- Complex society (CS).
- CS has more collectivities. Structures. Interdependence of structures.

Mediating values and institutionalization

- Common set of standards for conducting the complex chain of exchanges.
- Shared values are codified into laws and enforcement procedures.
- Such values provide effective mediation of complex exchanges.
- The process exchanges gets institutionalized.

Institutionalization

- Formalization of standards.
- Develop formal procedures of social exchange through substructures.
- It is institutionalization.
- The more complex the exchange relations, the more the formalization of social values, and the subsequent institutionalization of substructures and their exchange relations.

Lecture 15**THE DEVELOPMENT OF AMERICAN SOCIOLOGY-V****(Topic 60-63)****Dorothy E. Smith (1987 -)**

Dorothy E. Smith (1987) argues for a “woman-centered” sociological perspective (see also Smith, 1990, 1999). Her perspective, which can be characterized as a feminist “standpoint” theory, emphasizes that the social world is always experienced from the particular standpoints (or social positions) where individuals are located in the social structure. Her analysis leads to a critical orientation toward efforts to develop an “objective” sociology that is not grounded explicitly in the ongoing subjective experiences of people in their everyday lives.

According to Smith, the theories and research findings of (male) academic sociologists purport to provide authoritative accounts of the social world that takes precedence over the experiences and practical knowledge of the people who participate day after day in this world. When the results of such analyses are presented as universally valid knowledge grounded in “objective” facts, the validity of the knowledge based on personal experiences is discounted and dismissed as particularistic, nonrational, and merely subjective. In this way the voices of women and others without power or influence are silenced in favor of the voices of those (sociologists and others) who claim to base their knowledge on objective scientific facts rather than personal subjective experiences.

Sociological accounts of the social world that fail to correspond to the realities of people’s lived experiences contribute to a “bifurcated consciousness,” particularly for women (Smith, 1987:6–9). This is a type of consciousness that develops when the actual subjective experiences of everyday life are discounted in favor of professional academic modes of discourse and forms of knowledge that rest on authoritative claims to be objective and thus superior to subjective feelings and impressions. For both genders, this process can be illustrated in the classroom when students are cautioned not to rely on their own limited personal experiences for understanding the social world but to accept instead the authority of “objective” academic discourse for achieving “full” or “valid” or “less biased” understanding. The process is similar in some ways to what happens in marriage relations when a wife’s efforts to contribute to discussions with her husband are dismissed as unworthy of consideration because she is being “too emotional,” experiencing PMS, or not seeing the “larger picture” objectively.

The type of sociology Smith advocates begins with actual lived experiences and practical activities in which people engage as they adapt to the realities of their immediate social environment. For women, these realities involve fulfilling the expectations of their subordinate role as they attend to the needs of others (particularly males). These “behind the scenes” support roles are no less essential for the maintenance of institutional structures than the roles of those who are the official “agents” for these structures. Smith insists that by giving more explicit attention to people’s lived experiences, sociologists would be better able to understand the everyday social pressures resulting from the impersonal and external “relations of ruling” that confront them daily. These ruling relations described by Smith are experienced by women (and

other subordinates) at the micro level as they are confronted with the widespread expectations and demands of others who see their own interests and needs as having priority and as giving them the right to assume a position of dominance. Smith's argument is that, all else being equal, gender relations throughout society are governed by the implicitly understood cultural expectation that women will be deferential and compliant in their relations with men and that men will be dominant. All else is frequently not equal, however, especially for women employed in subordinate low-paying service jobs at the bottom of bureaucratic hierarchies. This means they are subordinated not only as women but also as subordinates in the organizational hierarchy at their place of employment.

Smith is highly critical of conventional sociological discourse because of the way it inevitably reflects the particular standpoints and implicit assumptions of those who create and utilize such discourse. This has traditionally been a male perspective. The alternative feminist perspective advocated by Smith emphasizes the way in which the standpoint (or social location) of women, and their experiences of the social world, differ from those of men. This results in large part from the fact that gender provides the foundation for male-dominated "relations of ruling" that pervade all aspects of social life. This concept of the "relations of ruling" refers to how the implicit cultural rules justifying male dominance are expressed in the actual relationships that develop between women and men. Smith argues that these widely accepted cultural understandings are virtually invisible to male sociologists simply because they are so deeply embedded in the taken-for-granted nature of the social world. In short, men don't have a clue as to how to theorize the experience of participating in the social world as a woman because they are on opposite sides of the fence, particularly in terms of the relations of ruling.

There are, of course, important differences among different feminist theorists. Some have expanded their focus to show how differences based on class and race, as well as sexual orientation, intersect with gender to give rise to important distinctions in the experiences of different categories of women. Thus different feminist theories can be compared and contrasted in terms of whether they focus primarily on the experiences shared by all women throughout society or the variations among women themselves in different racial/ethnic groups or socio-economic class positions.

Lecture 16**THE DEVELOPMENT OF AMERICAN SOCIOLOGY-VI****(Topic 64-67)****Patricia Hill Collins (1948)**

In her portrayal of black feminist thought, Patricia Hill Collins (2000) emphasized the interrelations of gender, race, and class as intersecting sources of domination, especially for black women. Since a great deal of feminist theory has been developed by white women in academic settings, their analyses may be seen as having limited relevance to the lived experiences of black women. Collins' primary goal is to portray the worlds of black women in their own terms (or from their own standpoints), as opposed to comparing or contrasting their experiences or worldviews with those of white women.

Drawing extensively on the writings and other cultural expressions of African American women, Collins describes their lives and worldviews in the areas of self-identity, "sexual politics," love relationships, motherhood, and community activism. With regard to self-identity, for example, she shows how the heroic struggles of black women within their own social networks enable them to maintain a sense of dignity and self-respect and to resist the negative images that underlie the dominant institutional practices of the wider society. In contrast to the degrading treatment black women receive from others in the wider environment, the loving and mutually supportive relationships they establish with one another in their extended families and communities serve as a source of positive self-esteem and empowerment in a generally hostile and oppressive world.

Collins points out the dilemmas black mothers have in teaching their daughters to resist the system of oppression in which they find themselves and to work for improvements in their life situation. At the same time, however, these mothers understand the need for their daughters to learn how to adapt to their subordinate and marginal position in the larger society in order to survive. In other words, even as black mothers encourage their daughters to try to improve their lives, they must also help them learn to deal with the often humiliating realities they face. Collins shows, too, that motherhood for black women includes an "other mother" role that often involves caring for extended family and other members of the community—a role that often leads to various forms of political activism in the community.

Overall, Collins portrays the world of African American women as involving multiple challenges resulting from their subordination in multiple systems of domination. This means that their struggles to maintain their dignity and to work for justice for themselves and their community must be waged on several different fronts simultaneously. She points out that black women tend to be subordinated to black men in terms of gender identity, but subordinated to white women in terms of racial identity. In other words, the intersecting hierarchies of gender and race result in a more pervasive form of subordination than that experienced by either black men or white women. In addition, the fact that many employed black women earn minimal incomes means that socioeconomic class position provides yet a third source of subordination affecting their identities and life chances that are independent of their gender and race. This notion of the effects of the intersection of gender, race, and class as multiple hierarchies of domination is one

of Collins' distinctive contributions to sociological theory. Her work can be seen as applying Dorothy's Smith's "standpoint" theory to the experiences of black women, especially those near the bottom of the socioeconomic hierarchy.

In some cases, too, the higher level occupations of upwardly mobile black women involves supervising other black women or providing social services to black clients. The experiences of black women with supervisory or professional careers are qualitatively different from the experiences of black women who continue to be employed in domestic service or other "invisible" types of service jobs. These successful African American women may be seen in some contexts as having been coopted, even when their level of upward socioeconomic mobility is quite limited. In effect, their middle class occupational positions means they are participants in the "ruling relations" (or authority structure) whereby the multiple structures of domination are maintained, even though many of them have not moved very high in the occupational hierarchy. In addition, when upwardly mobile black women are able to move out of African American neighborhoods into integrated neighborhoods, their network ties with other black women are likely to deteriorate. This means that their opportunities to contribute to the multiple forms of self-help exchanged in these communities is diminished at the same time that their resources to do so may have increased.

Other hierarchical differences that Collins analyzed include those of sexual orientation and nationality. The privileged status of heterosexual relationships provides a potential basis for marginalizing black women who are lesbian. Similarly, for black women living in the United States or other wealthy or developed societies, their nationality provides a source of privilege that distinguishes them from black women living in Africa or other poor or less developed regions of the world. Collins' overall emphasis is on the way multiple structures of domination, particularly those based on race, gender, and social class, reinforce one another in perpetuating systematic forms of oppression. But the differences within categories are also important to analyze. Thus race divides black and white women, and gender divides black women and men. Within these broad categories, sexual orientation divides heterosexuals from gays and lesbians, and nationality divides those who are dominated and oppressed in the United States from those in poorer societies who are exploited.

The pervasiveness of gender stratification and its overlap with other forms of domination and subordination are clearly revealed when we look at how gender relations are expressed at both the micro and macro levels of the social world, as well as in the meso levels in between.

Lecture 17**Classical and Contemporary Sociological Theory**
(Topic 68-70)**Topic 068: Classical and Contemporary Sociological Theory: How Distinguishable?**

No clear demarcation between classical and contemporary theory. Parsons considered the works by Weber and Durkheim as classic. Now Parsons himself may be considered as classical.

Classical: Four meanings

1. It has stood the test of time; we are still interested in it. Parsons may fall in it.
2. Classical that resonates contemporary work, gives orientation.
3. Work as classical when there have been new developments since it was written. Does not mean that the classical work has been superseded. New perspectives and debates have been added. These were not attended to earlier. Functionalism to neo-functionalism
4. Understand social theory in historical context.

A classical theory is distinguished from contemporary theory with respect to context i.e. distant past or recent present. Identify certain theories as “contemporary” that share the same broad historical situation with their authors.

Shifting borderlines

- The distinction between classical and contemporary appears to be relative.
- Parsons might be considered as midwife of modern or contemporary sociology.
- Still debatable.

Topic 069: The Classical Foundation of Sociological Theory**Different forces laid the foundation**

Prominent role of enlightenment during late 17th and late 18th centuries. Planted the seed of sociology in Europe. Ibn-e-Khaldun, North African scholar, laid the foundation in 14th century. Variety of explanations about social realities, the forces that bring changes, and the consequences of changes. Social thought is already there. Prominent among the classical founders that gave sociological touch were Marx, Durkheim, and Weber. In early 20th centuries, Period when sociology emerged as a discipline and then institutionalized in Universities. Mid 19th and early 20th centuries. Classical founders' works are not to be taken as whole truth. They helped define the discipline of sociology. The contemporary sociologists refine, rework and challenge the founders' ideas.

Topic 070: The Contemporary Sociological Theory**Periodized roughly with Parsons: 1930s**

- Classics mostly focused on the challenges of social order and social change.
- Period when sociology first emerged as a discipline and was institutionalized in universities.
- Still continuing with the dynamics of society with diversified approaches.

Contemporary theory: Diverse

- Sociology has become a specialized field.
- Breaking discipline into sub-specialties.
- At the same time it has become very broad. New bridges with other disciplines.

Specializations

- Includes macroscopic studies of structures of power, production, and trade. International levels.
- Variety of levels of analysis.
- No single theory or perspective is dominant.
- Variety of contending and complementary perspectives.
- Draw on works in other disciplines.

Lecture 18**CLASSICAL SOCIOLOGICAL THEORISTS: EMILE DURKHEIM (1838-1917)-I****(Topic 71-75)****Introduction**

There are two main themes in the work of Emile Durkheim. The first is the priority of the social over the individual, and the second is the idea that society can be studied scientifically. Because both of these themes continue to be controversial, Durkheim is still relevant today.

We live in a society that tends to see everything as attributable to individuals, even clearly social problems such as racism, pollution, and economic recessions. Durkheim approaches things from the opposite perspective, stressing the social dimension of all human phenomena. However, even some who recognize the importance of society tend to see it as an amorphous entity that can be intuitively understood but never scientifically studied. Here again, Durkheim provides the opposing approach. For Durkheim, society is made up of “social facts” which exceed our intuitive understanding and must be investigated through observations and measurements. These ideas are so central to sociology that Durkheim is often seen as the “father” of sociology. To found sociology as a discipline was indeed one of Durkheim’s primary goals.

Durkheim (1900/1973b:3) believed that sociology, as an idea, was born in France in the nineteenth century. He wanted to turn this idea into a discipline, a well-defined field of study. He recognized the roots of sociology in the ancient philosophers—such as Plato and Aristotle—and more proximate sources in French philosophers such as Montesquieu and Condorcet. However, in Durkheim’s (1900/1973b:6) view, previous philosophers did not go far enough because they did not try to create an entirely new discipline.

Although the term *sociology* had been coined some years earlier by Auguste Comte, there was no field of sociology per se in late-nineteenth-century universities. There were no schools, departments, or even professors of sociology. There were a few thinkers who were dealing with ideas that were in one way or another sociological, but there was as yet no disciplinary “home” for sociology. Indeed, there was strong opposition from existing disciplines to the founding of such a field. The most significant opposition came from psychology and philosophy, two fields that claimed already to cover the domain sought by sociology. The dilemma for Durkheim, given his aspirations for sociology, was how to create for it a separate and identifiable niche.

To separate it from philosophy, Durkheim argued that sociology should be oriented toward empirical research. This seems simple enough, but the situation was complicated by Durkheim’s belief that sociology was also threatened by a philosophical school within sociology itself. In his view, the two other major figures of the epoch who thought of themselves as sociologists, Comte and Herbert Spencer, were far more interested in philosophizing, in abstract theorizing, than they were in studying the social world empirically. If the field continued in the direction set by Comte and Spencer, Durkheim felt, it would become nothing more than a branch of philosophy. As a result, he found it necessary to attack both Comte and Spencer for relying on preconceived ideas of social phenomena instead of actually studying the real world. Thus Comte was said to be guilty of assuming theoretically that the social world was evolving in the direction of an

increasingly perfect society, rather than engaging in the hard, rigorous, and basic work of actually studying the changing nature of various societies. Similarly, Spencer was accused of assuming harmony in society rather than studying whether harmony actually existed.

Social Facts

In order to help sociology move away from philosophy and to give it a clear and separate identity, Durkheim (1895/1982) proposed that the distinctive subject matter of sociology should be the study of social facts. Briefly, *social facts* are the social structures and cultural norms and values that are external to, and coercive of, actors. Students, for example, are constrained by such social structures as the university bureaucracy as well as the norms and values of American society, which place great importance on a college education. Similar social facts constrain people in all areas of social life. Crucial in separating sociology from philosophy is the idea that social facts are to be treated as “things” and studied empirically. This means that we must study social facts by acquiring data from outside of our own minds through observation and experimentation. The empirical study of social facts as things sets Durkheim gave two ways of defining a social fact so that sociology is distinguished from psychology. First, a social fact is experienced as an external constraint rather than an internal drive; second, it is general throughout the society and is not attached to any particular individual. Durkheim argued that social facts cannot be reduced to individuals, but must be studied as their own reality. Durkheim referred to social facts with the Latin term *sui generis*, which means “unique.” He used this term to claim that social facts have their own unique character that is not reducible to individual consciousness. To allow that social facts could be explained by reference to individuals would be to reduce sociology to psychology. Instead, social facts can be explained only by other social facts.

He also refers to language as a social fact, and it provides an easily understood example. First, language is a “thing” that must be studied empirically. One cannot simply philosophize about the logical rules of language. Certainly, all languages have some logical rules regarding grammar, pronunciation, spelling, and so forth; however, all languages also have important exceptions to these logical rules. What follows the rules and what are exceptions must be discovered empirically by studying actual language use, especially since language use changes over time in ways that are not completely predictable.

Second, language is external to the individual. Although individuals use a language, language is not defined or created by the individual. The fact that individuals adapt language to their own use indicates that language is first external to the individual and in need of adaptation for individual use. Indeed, some philosophers have argued that there cannot be such a thing as a private language. A collection of words with only private meanings would not qualify as a language because it could not perform the basic function of a language: communication. Language is, by definition, social and therefore external to any particular individual.

Third, language is coercive of the individual. The language that we use makes some things extremely difficult to say. For example, people in lifelong relationships with same-sex partners have a very difficult time referring to each other. Should they call each other “partners”—leading people into thinking they are in business together—“significant others,” “lovers,” “spouses,”

“special friends”? Each seems to have its disadvantages. Language is part of the system of social facts that makes life with a finally, changes in language can be explained only by other social facts and never by one individual’s intentions. Even in those rare instances where a change in language can be traced to an individual, the actual explanation for the change is the social facts that have made society open to this change. For example, the most changeable part of language is slang, which almost always originates in a marginal social group. We may assume that an individual first originates a slang term, but which individual is irrelevant. It is the fact of the marginal social group that truly explains the history and function of the slang.

Some sociologists feel that Durkheim took an “extremist” position in limiting sociology to the study of social facts. This position has limited at least some branches of sociology to the present day. Furthermore, Durkheim seemed to artificially sever sociology from neighboring fields. As puts it, “Because he defined sociology so exclusively in relation to its own facts, Durkheim cut it off from the other sciences of man.” Nevertheless, whatever its subsequent drawbacks, Durkheim’s idea of social facts both established sociology as an independent field of study and provided one of the most convincing arguments for studying society as it is before we decide what it should be.

Material and Nonmaterial Social Facts

Durkheim differentiated between two broad types of social facts—material and nonmaterial.

Material social facts, such as styles of architecture, forms of technology, and legal codes, are the easier to understand of the two because they are directly observable. Clearly, such things as laws are external to individuals and coercive over them. More importantly, these material social facts often express a far larger and more powerful realm of moral forces that are at least equally external to individuals and coercive over them. These are nonmaterial social facts.

The bulk of Durkheim’s studies, and the heart of his sociology, lies in the study of nonmaterial social facts. Durkheim said: “Not all social consciousness achieves . . . externalization and materialization”. What sociologists now call norms and values, or more generally culture (Alexander, 1988), are good examples of what Durkheim meant by *nonmaterial social facts*. But this idea creates a problem: How can nonmaterial social facts like norms and values be external to the actor? Where could they be found except in the minds of actors? And if they are in the minds of actors, are they not internal rather than external?

Durkheim recognized that nonmaterial social facts are, to a certain extent, found in the minds of individuals. However, it was his belief that when people begin to interact in complex ways, their interactions will “obey laws all their own”. Individuals are still necessary as a kind of substrate for the nonmaterial social facts, but the particular form and content will be determined by the complex interactions and not by the individuals. Hence, Durkheim could write in the same work first that “Social things are actualized only through men; they are the product of human activity” (1895/1982:17) and second that “Society is not a mere sum of individuals”. Despite the fact that society is made up only of human beings and contains no immaterial “spiritual” substance, it can be understood only through studying the interactions rather than the individuals. The interactions, even when nonmaterial, have their own levels of reality. This has been called “relational realism” (Alpert, 1939).

Durkheim saw social facts along a continuum of materiality. The sociologist usually begins a study by focusing on material social facts, which are empirically accessible, in order to understand nonmaterial social facts, which are the real focus of his work. The most material are such things as population size and density, channels of communication, and housing arrangements (Andrews, 1993). Durkheim called these facts *morphological*, and they figure most importantly in his first book, *The Division of Labor in Society*. At another level are structural components (a bureaucracy, for example), which are a mixture of morphological components (the density of people in a building and their lines of communication) and nonmaterial social facts (such as the bureaucratic norms).

Types of non-material social facts

Morality: Social fact. Hence empirical. External to individual. Hence coercive and explained by other facts. Individual not free to pursue his self-interests.

Collective representation: Collective “idea.” Collective beliefs, norms, and values. Motivate to conform to these collective claims. Connected to material symbols: flags, pictures, icons.

Collective conscience: Moral conscience. “The totality of beliefs and sentiments common to average citizens.” “Primitive” societies had a stronger collective conscience than modern societies.

Social Currents: “the great waves of enthusiasm, indignation, and pity” that are produced in public gatherings. People are swept along by such social currents. People show their hidden feelings about fashions, desires. Have coercive power over us. Become part of political youth. Rulers might get scared.

Too much concern about nonmaterial social facts

- The idea of a set of independent social currents “coursing” through the social world as if they were somehow suspended in a social void.
- Criticize Durkheim -> He accorded nonmaterial social facts an autonomous existence, separate from actors.
- Cultural phenomena cannot float by themselves in a social void.

Consciousness of consciousness

- The collective mind is only a composite of individual minds.
- Not simply putting together.
- Perpetual interaction through the exchange of symbols.
- Interpenetrate one another.
- Form an entirely new psychological being.
- More intense, vaster, and more powerful than what is it composed of.
- Individuals certainly contribute to social facts, but by becoming social something new develops through their interactions.
- Social currents can only be explained inter-subjectively.
- They exist at the level of interactions, not at the level of individuals.
- Collective moods. New level of reality

Social facts are powerful

- Durkheim had a very modern conception of nonmaterial social facts that encompasses norms, values, culture, and a variety of shared social-psychological phenomena.
- All creations of interaction. Also govern interactions.

The Division of Labor in Society

The Division of Labor in Society has been called sociology's first classic. In this work, Durkheim traced the development of the modern relation between individuals and society. In particular, Durkheim wanted to use his new science of sociology to examine what many at the time had come to see as the modern crisis of morality. The preface to the first edition begins, "This book is above all an attempt to treat the facts of moral life according to the methods of the positive sciences." In France in Durkheim's day, there was a widespread feeling of moral crisis.

The French Revolution had ushered in a focus on the rights of the individual that often expressed itself as an attack on traditional authority and religious beliefs. This trend continued even after the fall of the revolutionary government. By the mid nineteenth century, many people felt that social order was threatened because people thought only about themselves and not about society. In the less than 100 years between the French Revolution and Durkheim's maturity, France went through three monarchies, two empires, and three republics. These regimes produced fourteen constitutions. The feeling of moral crisis was brought to a head by Prussia's crushing defeat of France in 1870, which included the annexation of Durkheim's birthplace by Prussia. This was followed by the short-lived and violent revolution known as the Paris Commune. 2 Both the defeat and the subsequent revolt were blamed on the problem of rampant individualism.

August Comte argued that many of these events could be traced to the increasing division of labor. In simpler societies, people do basically the same thing, such as farming, and they share common experiences and consequently have common values. In modern society, in contrast, everyone has a different job. When different people are assigned various specialized tasks, they no longer share common experiences.

This diversity undermines the shared moral beliefs that are necessary for a society. Consequently, people will not sacrifice in times of social need. Comte proposed that sociology create a new pseudo-religion that would reinstate social cohesion. To a large degree, *The Division of Labor in Society* can be seen as a refutation of Comte's analysis. Durkheim argues that the division of labor does not represent the disappearance of social morality so much as a new kind of social morality.

The thesis of *The Division of Labor* is that modern society is not held together by the similarities between people who do basically similar things. Instead, it is the division of labor itself that pulls people together by forcing them to be dependent on each other. It may seem that the division of labor is an economic necessity that corrodes the feeling of solidarity, but Durkheim argued that "the economic services that it can render are insignificant compared with the moral effect that it produces and its true function is to create between two or more people a feeling of solidarity."

Lecture 19**CLASSICAL SOCIOLOGICAL THEORISTS: EMILE DURKHEIM (1838-1917)-II****(Topic 76-80)****Mechanical and Organic Solidarity**

The change in the division of labor has had enormous implications for the structure of society. Durkheim was most interested in the changed way in which social solidarity is produced, in other words, the changed way in which society is held together and how its members see themselves as part of a whole. To capture this difference, Durkheim referred to two types of solidarity—mechanical and organic. A society characterized by *mechanical* solidarity is unified because all people are generalists. The bond among people is that they are all engaged in similar activities and have similar responsibilities. In contrast, a society characterized by *organic* solidarity is held together by the differences among people, by the fact that all have different tasks and responsibilities.

Because people in modern society perform a relatively narrow range of tasks, they need many other people in order to survive. The primitive family headed by father-hunter and mother-food gatherer is practically self-sufficient, but the modern family needs the grocer, baker, butcher, auto mechanic, teacher, police officer, and so forth. These people, in turn, need the kinds of services that others provide in order to live in the modern world. Modern society, in Durkheim's view, is thus held together by the specialization of people and their need for the services of many others. This specialization includes not only that of individuals but also of groups, structures, and institutions.

Durkheim argued that primitive societies have a stronger collective conscience, that is, more shared understandings, norms, and beliefs. The increasing division of labor has caused a diminution of the collective conscience. The collective conscience is of much less significance in a society with organic solidarity than it is in a society with mechanical solidarity. People in modern society are more likely to be held together by the division of labor and the resulting need for the functions performed by others than they are by a shared and powerful collective conscience. Nevertheless, even organic societies have a collective consciousness, albeit in a weaker form that allows for more individual differences.

Anthony Giddens (1972) points out that the collective conscience in the two types of society can be differentiated on four dimensions—volume, intensity, rigidity, and content (see Table 3.1). *Volume* refers to the number of people enveloped by the collective conscience; *intensity*, to how deeply the individuals feel about it; *rigidity*, to how clearly it is defined; and *content*, to the form that the collective conscience takes in the two types of society. In a society characterized by mechanical solidarity, the collective conscience covers virtually the entire society and all its members; it is believed in with great intensity; it is extremely rigid; and its content is highly religious in character. In a society with organic solidarity, the collective conscience is limited to particular groups; it is adhered to with much less intensity; it is not very rigid; and its content is the elevation of the importance of the individual to a moral precept.

Dynamic Density

The division of labor was a material social fact to Durkheim because it is a pattern of interactions in the social world. As indicated above, social facts must be explained by other social facts. Durkheim believed that the cause of the transition from mechanical to organic solidarity was dynamic density. This concept refers to the number of people in a society and the amount of interaction that occurs among them. More people means an increase in the competition for scarce resources, and more interaction means a more intense struggle for survival among the basically similar components of society.

The problems associated with dynamic density usually are resolved through differentiation and, ultimately, the emergence of new forms of social organization. The rise of the division of labor allows people to complement, rather than conflict with, one another. Furthermore, the increased division of labor makes for greater efficiency, with the result that resources increase, making the competition over them more peaceful.

This points to one final difference between mechanical and organic solidarity. In societies with organic solidarity, less competition and more differentiation allow people to cooperate more and to all be supported by the same resource base. Therefore, difference allows for even closer bonds between people than does similarity. Thus, in a society characterized by organic solidarity, there are both more solidarity and more individuality than there are in a society characterized by mechanical solidarity (Rueschemeyer, 1994). Individuality, then, is not the opposite of close social bonds but a requirement for them (Muller, 1994).

Durkheim argues in *The Division of Labor* that the form of moral solidarity has changed in modern society, not disappeared. We have a new form of solidarity that allows for more interdependence and closer, less competitive relations and that produces a new form of law based on restitution. However, this book was far from a celebration of modern society. Durkheim argued that this new form of solidarity is prone to certain kinds of social pathologies.

Justice

For the division of labor to function as a moral and socially solidifying force in modern society, anomie, the forced division of labor, and the improper coordination of specialization must be addressed. Modern societies are no longer held together by shared experiences and common beliefs. Instead, they are held together through their very differences, so long as those differences are allowed to develop in a way that promotes interdependence. Morality, social solidarity, justice—these were big themes for a first book in a fledgling field. Durkheim was to return to these ideas again in his work, but never again would he look at them in terms of society as a whole. He predicted in his second book, *The Rules of Sociological Method* (1895/1982:184), that sociology itself would succumb to the division of labor and break down into a collection of specialties. Whether this has led to an increased interdependence and an organic solidarity in sociology is still an open question.

Suicide

It has been suggested that Durkheim's study of suicide is the paradigmatic example of how a sociologist should connect theory and research (Merton, 1968). Indeed, Durkheim makes it clear in the "Preface" that he intended this study not only to contribute to the understanding of a particular social problem, but also to serve as an example of his new sociological method. (For a series of appraisals of *Suicide* nearly 100 years after its publication, see Lester, 1994.)

Durkheim chose to study suicide because it is a relatively concrete and specific phenomenon for which there were comparatively good data available. However, Durkheim's most important reason for studying suicide was to prove the power of the new science of sociology. Suicide is generally considered to be one of the most private and personal acts. Durkheim believed that if he could show that sociology had a role to play in explaining such a seemingly individualistic act as suicide, it would be relatively easy to extend sociology's domain to phenomena that are much more readily seen as open to sociological analysis.

As a sociologist, Durkheim was not concerned with studying why any specific individual committed suicide. That was to be left to the psychologists. Instead, Durkheim was interested in explaining differences in *suicide rates*; that is, he was interested in why one group had a higher rate of suicide than did another. Psychological or biological factors may explain why a particular individual in a group commits suicide, but Durkheim assumed that only social facts could explain why one group had a higher rate of suicide than did another.

Durkheim proposed two related ways of evaluating suicide rates. One way is to compare different societies or other types of collectivities. Another way is to look at the changes in the suicide rate in the same collectivity over time. In either case, cross culturally or historically, the logic of the argument is essentially the same. If there is variation in suicide rates from one group to another or from one time period to another, Durkheim believed that the difference would be the consequence of variations in sociological factors, in particular, social currents. Durkheim acknowledged that individuals may have reasons for committing suicide, but these reasons are not the real cause: "They may be said to indicate the individual's weak points, where the outside current bearing the impulse to self-destruction most easily finds introduction. But they are no part of this current itself, and consequently cannot help us to understand it".

Durkheim began *Suicide* by testing and rejecting a series of alternative ideas about the causes of suicide. Among these are individual psychopathology, alcoholism, race, heredity, and climate. Not all of Durkheim's arguments are convincing. However, what is important is his method of empirically dismissing what he considered extraneous factors so that he could get to what he thought of as the most important causal variables.

The Four Types of Suicide

Durkheim's theory of suicide can be seen more clearly if we examine the relation between the types of suicide and his two underlying social facts—integration and regulation (Pope, 1976). Integration refers to the strength of the attachment that we have to society. Regulation refers to the degree of external constraint on people. For Durkheim, the two social currents are continuous

variables, and suicide rates go up when either of these currents is too low or too high. We therefore have four types of suicide (see Table 3.2). If integration is high, Durkheim calls that type of suicide altruistic. Low integration results in an increase in egoistic suicides. Fatalistic suicide is associated with high regulation, and anomic suicide with low regulation.

Egoistic Suicide

High rates of *egoistic suicide* (Berk, 2006) are likely to be found in societies or groups in which the individual is not well integrated into the larger social unit. This lack of integration leads to a feeling that the individual is not part of society, but this also means that society is not part of the individual. Durkheim believed that the best parts of a human being—our morality, values, and sense of purpose—come from society. An integrated society provides us with these things, as well as a general feeling of moral support to get us through the daily small indignities and trivial disappointments.

Without this, we are liable to commit suicide at the smallest frustration. The lack of social integration produces distinctive social currents, and these currents cause differences in suicide rates. For example, Durkheim talked of societal disintegration leading to “currents of depression and disillusionment”. Politics is dominated by a sense of futility, morality is seen as an individual choice, and popular philosophies stress the meaninglessness of life. In contrast, strongly integrated groups discourage suicide. The protective, enveloping social currents produced by integrated societies prevent the widespread occurrence of egoistic suicide by, among other things, providing people with a sense of the broader meaning of their lives.

Altruistic Suicide

The second type of suicide discussed by Durkheim is altruistic suicide. Whereas egoistic suicide is more likely to occur when social integration is too weak, *altruistic suicide* is more likely to occur when “social integration is too strong”. The individual is literally forced into committing suicide. One notorious example of altruistic suicide was the mass suicide of the followers of the Reverend Jim Jones in Jonestown, Guyana, in 1978. They knowingly took a poisoned drink and in some cases had their children drink it as well. They clearly were committing suicide because they were so tightly integrated into the society of Jones’s fanatical followers. Durkheim notes that this is also the explanation for those who seek to be martyrs, as in the terrorist attack of September 11, 2001. More generally, those who commit altruistic suicide do so because they feel that it is their duty to do so. Durkheim argued that this is particularly likely in the military, where the degree of integration is so strong that an individual will feel that he or she has disgraced the entire group by the most trivial of failures.

Whereas higher rates of egoistic suicide stem from “incurable weariness and sad depression,” the increased likelihood of altruistic suicide “springs from hope, for it depends on the belief in beautiful perspectives beyond this life”. When integration is low, people will commit suicide because they have no greater good to sustain them. When integration is high, they commit suicide in the name of that greater good.

Anomic Suicide

The third major form of suicide discussed by Durkheim is *anomic suicide*, which is more likely to occur when the regulative powers of society are disrupted. Such disruptions are likely to leave individuals dissatisfied because there is little control over their passions, which are free to run wild in an insatiable race for gratification. Rates of anomic suicide are likely to rise whether the nature of the disruption is positive (for example, an economic boom) or negative (an economic depression). Either type of disruption renders the collectivity temporarily incapable of exercising its authority over individuals. Such changes put people in new situations in which the old norms no longer apply but new ones have yet to develop. Periods of disruption unleash currents of anomie—moods of rootlessness and normlessness—and these currents lead to an increase in rates of anomic suicide. This is relatively easy to envisage in the case of an economic depression. The closing of a factory because of a depression may lead to the loss of a job, with the result that the individual is cut adrift from the regulative effect that both the company and the job may have had. Being cut off from these structures or others (for example, family, religion, and state) can leave an individual highly vulnerable to the effects of currents of anomie.

Fatalistic Suicide

There is a little-mentioned fourth type of suicide—fatalistic—that Durkheim discussed only in a footnote in *Suicide*. Whereas anomic suicide is more likely to occur in situations in which regulation is too weak, *fatalistic suicide* is more likely to occur when regulation is excessive. Durkheim (1897/1951:276) described those who are more likely to commit fatalistic suicide as “persons with futures pitilessly blocked and passions violently choked by oppressive discipline.” The classic example is the slave who takes his own life because of the hopelessness associated with the oppressive regulation of his every action. Too much regulation—oppression—unleashes currents of melancholy that, in turn, cause a rise in the rate of fatalistic suicide.

Durkheim argued that social currents cause changes in the rates of suicides. Individual suicides are affected by these underlying currents of egoism, altruism, anomie, and fatalism. This proved, for Durkheim, that these currents are more than just the sum of individuals, but are *sui generis* forces, because they dominate the decisions of individuals. Without this assumption, the stability of the suicide rate for any particular society could not be explained.

Theory of Religion—The Sacred and the Profane

Raymond Aron (1965:45) said of *The Elementary Forms of Religious Life* that it was Durkheim’s most important, most profound, and most original work. Randall Collins and Michael Makowsky (1998:107) call it “perhaps the greatest single book of the twentieth century.” In this book, Durkheim put forward both a sociology of religion and a theory of knowledge. His sociology of religion consisted of an attempt to identify the enduring essence of religion through an analysis of its most primitive forms. His theory of knowledge attempted to connect the fundamental categories of human thought to their social origins. It was Durkheim’s great genius to propose a sociological connection between these two disparate puzzles. Put briefly, he found the enduring essence of religion in the setting apart of the sacred from all that is profane (Edwards, 2007). This sacred is created through rituals that transform the moral power of

society into religious symbols that bind individuals to the group. Durkheim's most daring argument is that this moral bond becomes a cognitive bond because the categories for understanding, such as classification, time, space, and causation, are also derived from religious rituals.

Let us start with Durkheim's theory of religion. Society (through individuals) creates religion by defining certain phenomena as sacred and others as profane. Those aspects of social reality that are defined as sacred—that is, that are set apart from the everyday—form the essence of religion. The rest are defined as profane—the commonplace, the utilitarian, the mundane aspects of life. On the one hand, the sacred brings out an attitude of reverence, awe, and obligation. On the other hand, it is the attitude accorded to these phenomena that transforms them from profane to sacred. The question for Durkheim was, What is the source of this reverence, awe, and obligation?

He proposed to both retain the essential truth of religion while revealing its sociological reality. Durkheim refused to believe that all religion is nothing but an illusion. Such a pervasive social phenomenon must have some truth. However, that truth need not be precisely that which is believed by the participants. Indeed, as a strict agnostic, Durkheim could not believe that anything supernatural was the source of these religious feelings. There really is a superior moral power that inspires believers, but it is society and not God. Durkheim argued that religion symbolically embodies society itself. Religion is the system of symbols by means of which society becomes conscious of itself. This was the only way that he could explain why every society has had religious beliefs but each has had different beliefs.

Society is a power that is greater than we are. It transcends us, demands our sacrifices, suppresses our selfish tendencies, and fills us with energy. Society, according to Durkheim, exercises these powers through representations. In God, he sees “only society transfigured and symbolically expressed” (Durkheim, 1906/1974:52). Thus society is the source of the sacred.

Lecture 20**CLASSICAL SOCIOLOGICAL THEORISTS: EMILE DURKHEIM (1838-1917)-III****(Topic 81-84)**

Every society has religious beliefs though different. Society has the Superior moral power demanding its members' sacrifices, suppresses their selfish tendencies, and fills them with energy. Religion symbolically embodies society itself. Religion can be means to consciousness through its symbols.

Beliefs, Rituals, and Church

The differentiation between the sacred and the profane and the elevation of some aspects of social life to the sacred level are necessary but not sufficient conditions for the development of religion. Three other conditions are needed. First, there must be the development of a set of religious beliefs. These beliefs are "the representations which express the nature of sacred things and the relations which they sustain, either with each other or with profane things". Second, a set of religious rituals is necessary. These are "the rules of conduct which prescribe how a man should comport himself in the presence of these sacred objects". Finally, a religion requires a church, or a single overarching moral community. The interrelationships among the sacred, beliefs, rituals, and church led Durkheim to the following definition of a religion: "A religion is a unified system of beliefs and practices which unite into one single moral community called a Church, all those who adhere to them".

Rituals and the church are important to Durkheim's theory of religion because they connect the representations of the social to individual practices. Durkheim often assumes that social currents are simply absorbed by individuals through some sort of contagion, but here he spells out how such a process might work. Individuals learn about the sacred and its associated beliefs through participating in rituals and in the community of the church. As we will see below, this is also how individuals learn the categories of understanding (Rawls, 1996). Furthermore, rituals and the church keep social representations from dissipating and losing their force by dramatically reenacting the collective memory of the group. Finally, they reconnect individuals to the social, a source of greater energy that inspires them when they return to their mundane pursuits.

Moral Education and Social Reform

Durkheim did not consider himself to be political and indeed avoided most partisan politics as not compatible with scientific objectivity. Nevertheless, as we've seen, most of his writings dealt with social issues, and, unlike some who see themselves as objective scientists today, he was not shy about suggesting specific social reforms, in particular regarding education and occupational associations.

In taking this position, he stood in opposition to both the conservatives and the radicals of his day. Conservatives saw no hope in modern society and sought instead the restoration of the monarchy or of the political power of the Roman Catholic Church. Radicals like the socialists of Durkheim's time agreed that the world could not be reformed, but they hoped that a revolution would bring into existence socialism or communism. Both Durkheim's programs for reform and

his reformist approach were due to his belief that society is the source of any morality. His reform programs were dictated by the fact that society needs to be able to produce moral direction for the individual. To the extent that society is losing that capacity, it must be reformed. His reformist approach was dictated by the fact that the source for any reform has to be the actually existing society. It does no good to formulate reform programs from the viewpoint of an abstract morality. The program must be generated by that society's social forces and not from some philosopher's, or even sociologist's, ethical system. "Ideals cannot be legislated into existence; they must be understood, loved and striven for by the body whose duty it is to realize them".

Morality

Durkheim offered courses and gave public lectures on moral education and the sociology of morals. And he intended, had he lived long enough, to culminate his oeuvre with a comprehensive presentation of his science of morals. The connection that Durkheim saw between sociology and morality has not until recently been appreciated by most sociologists. Durkheim was centrally concerned with morality, but it is not easy to classify his theory of morality according to the typical categories. On the one hand, he was a moral relativist who believed that ethical rules do and should change in response to other social facts. On the other hand, he was a traditionalist because he did not believe that one could simply create a new morality. Any new morality could only grow out of our collective moral traditions. He insisted that one must "see in morality itself a fact the nature of which one must investigate attentively, I would even say respectfully, before daring to modify". Durkheim's sociological theory of morality cuts across most of the positions concerning morality today and offers the possibility of a fresh perspective on contemporary debates over such issues as traditional families and the moral content of popular culture. Morality, for Durkheim, has three components. First, morality involves discipline, that is, a sense of authority that resists idiosyncratic impulses. Second, morality involves attachment to society because society is the source of our morality. Third, it involves autonomy, a sense of individual responsibility for our actions.

Discipline

Durkheim usually discussed *discipline* in terms of constraint upon one's egoistic impulses. Such constraint is necessary because individual interests and group interests are not the same and may, at least in the short term, be in conflict. Discipline confronts one with one's moral duty, which, for Durkheim, is one's duty to society. As discussed above, this social discipline also makes the individual happier because it limits his or who otherwise would always want more.

Attachment

But Durkheim did not see morality as simply a matter of constraint. His second element in morality is *attachment* to social groups—the warm, voluntary, positive aspect of group commitment—not out of external duty but out of willing attachment. These two elements of morality—discipline and attachment—complement and support each other because they are both just different aspects of society. The former is society seen as making demands on us, and the latter is society seen as part of us.

Autonomy

The third element of morality is *autonomy*. Here Durkheim follows Kant's philosophical definition and sees it as a rationally grounded impulse of the will, with the sociological twist that the rational grounding is ultimately social. Durkheim's focus on society as the source of morality has led many to assume that his ideal actor is one who is almost wholly controlled from without—a total conformist. However, Durkheim did not subscribe to such an extreme view of the actor: "Conformity must not be pushed to the point where it completely subjugates the intellect. Thus it does not follow from a belief in the need for discipline that it must be blind and slavish" (cited in Giddens, 1972:113).

Autonomy comes to full force in modernity only with the decline of the myths and symbols that previous moral systems used to demand discipline and encourage attachment. Durkheim believed that now that these myths have passed away, only scientific understanding can provide the foundation for moral autonomy. In particular, modern morality should be based on the relation between individuals and society as revealed by Durkheim's new science of sociology. The only way for this sociological understanding to become a true morality is through education.

Moral Education

Durkheim's most consistent attempts to reform society in order to enable a modern morality were directed at education. *Education* was defined by Durkheim as the process by which the individual acquires the physical, intellectual, and, most important to Durkheim, moral tools needed to function in society. Durkheim had always believed "that the relation of the science of sociology to education was that of theory to practice." In 1902, he was given the powerful position of head of the Sorbonne's education department. "It is scarcely an exaggeration to say that every young mind in Paris, in the decade prior to World War I, came directly or indirectly under his influence". Before Durkheim began to reform education there had been two approaches. One saw education as an extension of the church, and the other saw education as the unfolding of the natural individual. In contrast, Durkheim argued that education should help children develop a moral attitude toward society. He believed that the schools were practically the only existing institution that could provide a social foundation for modern morality. For Durkheim, the classroom is a small society, and he concluded that its collective effervescence could be made powerful enough to inculcate a moral attitude. The classroom could provide the rich collective milieu necessary for reproducing collective representations. This would allow education to present and reproduce all three elements of morality. First, it would provide individuals with the discipline they need to restrain the passions that threaten to engulf them. Second, education could develop in the students a sense of devotion to society and to its moral system. Most important is education's role in the development of autonomy, in which discipline is "freely desired," and the attachment to society is by virtue of "enlightened assent."

Lecture 21**CLASSICAL SOCIOLOGICAL THEORISTS: KARL MARX (1818-1883)-I****(Topic85-89)**

For many, Marx has become more of an icon than a thinker deserving of serious study. The symbolism of his name tends to muddle understanding of his ideas. Marx is the only theorist we will study who has had political movements and social systems named after him. He is probably the only theorist your friends and family have strong opinions about. He is often criticized, as well as praised, by people who have never actually read his work. Even among his followers, Marx's ideas frequently are reduced to slogans such as "the opium of the people" and "the dictatorship of proletariat," but the role of these slogans in Marx's encompassing theory often is ignored. There are many reasons for this lack of understanding of Marx's social theory, the main one being that Marx never really completed his social theory. He planned, early in his career, to publish separate works on economics, law, morals, politics, and so forth, and then "in a special work, to present them once again as a connected whole, to show the relationship between the parts". He never did this final work and never even completed his separate work on economics. Instead, much of his time was taken up by study, journalism, political activity, and a series of minor intellectual and political arguments with friends and adversaries.

Despite differing interpretations, there is general agreement that Marx's main interest was in the historical basis of inequality, especially the unique form that it takes under capitalism. However, Marx's approach is different from many of the theories that we will examine. For Marx, a theory about how society works would be partial, because what he mainly sought was a theory about how to change society. Marx's theory, then, is an analysis of inequality under capitalism and how to change it. As capitalism has come to dominate the globe and the most significant communist alternatives have disappeared, some might argue that Marx's theories have lost their relevance. However, once we realize that Marx provides an analysis of capitalism, we can see that his theories are more relevant now than ever. Marx provides a diagnosis of capitalism that is able to reveal its tendencies to crises, point out its perennial inequalities, and, if nothing else, demand that capitalism live up to its own promises. The example of Marx makes an important point about theory. Even when their particular predictions are disproved—even though the proletariat revolution that Marx believed to be imminent did not come about—theories still hold a value as an alternative to our current society. Theories may not tell us what will happen, but they can argue for what should happen and help us develop a plan for carrying out the change that the theory envisions or for resisting the change that the theory predicts.

The Dialectic

The idea of a dialectical philosophy had been around for centuries. Its basic idea is the centrality of contradiction. While most philosophies, and indeed common sense, treat contradictions as mistakes, a dialectical philosophy believes that contradictions exist in reality and that the most appropriate way to understand reality is to study the development of those contradictions. Hegel used the idea of contradiction to understand historical change. According to Hegel, historical change has been driven by the contradictory understandings that are the essence of reality, by our attempts to resolve the contradictions, and by the new contradictions that develop.

Marx also accepted the centrality of contradictions to historical change. We see this in such well-known formulations as the “contradictions of capitalism” and “class contradictions.” However, unlike Hegel, Marx did not believe that these contradictions could be worked out in our understanding, that is, in our minds. Instead, for Marx these are real, existing contradictions. For Marx, such contradictions are resolved not by the philosopher sitting in an armchair but by a life-and-death struggle that changes the social world. This was a crucial transformation because it allowed Marx to move the dialectic out of the realm of philosophy and into the realm of a study of social relations grounded in the material world. It is this focus that makes Marx’s work so relevant to sociology, even though the dialectical approach is very different from the mode of thinking used by most sociologists. The dialectic leads to an interest in the conflicts and contradictions among various levels of social reality, rather than to the more traditional sociological interest in the ways these various levels mesh neatly into a cohesive whole.

For example, one of the contradictions within capitalism is the relationship between the workers and the capitalists who own the factories and other means of production with which the work is done. The capitalist must exploit the workers in order to make a profit from the workers’ labor. The workers, in contradiction to the capitalists, want to keep at least some of the profit for themselves. Marx believed that this contradiction was at the heart of capitalism, and that it would grow worse as capitalists drove more and more people to become workers by forcing small firms out of business and as competition between the capitalists forced them to further exploit the workers to make a profit. As capitalism expands, the number of workers exploited, as well as the degree of exploitation, increases. This contradiction can be resolved not through philosophy but only through social change. The tendency for the level of exploitation to escalate leads to more and more resistance by the workers. Resistance begets more exploitation and oppression, and the likely result is a confrontation between the two classes.

Dialectical Method

Marx’s focus on real, existing contradictions led to a particular method for studying social phenomena that has also come to be called “dialectical.”

Fact and Value

In dialectical analysis, social values are not separable from social facts. Many sociologists believe that their values can and must be separated from their study of facts about the social world. The dialectical thinker believes that it is not only impossible to keep values out of the study of the social world but also undesirable, because to do so would produce a dispassionate, inhuman sociology that has little to offer to people in search of answers to the problems they confront. Facts and values are inevitably intertwined, with the result that the study of social phenomena is value-laden. Thus to Marx it was impossible and, even if possible, undesirable to be dispassionate in his analysis of capitalist society. But Marx’s emotional involvement in what he was studying did not mean that his observations were inaccurate. It could even be argued that Marx’s passionate views on these issues gave him unparalleled insight into the nature of capitalist society. A less passionate student might have delved less deeply into the dynamics of the system. In fact, research into the work of scientists indicates that the idea of a dispassionate

scientist is largely a myth and that the very best scientists are the ones who are most passionate about, and committed to, their ideas.

Reciprocal Relations

The dialectical method of analysis does not see a simple, one-way, cause-and-effect relationship among the various parts of the social world. For the dialectical thinker, social influences never simply flow in one direction as they often do for cause-and-effect thinkers. To the dialectician, one factor may have an effect on another, but it is just as likely that the latter will have a simultaneous effect on the former. For example, the increasing exploitation of the workers by the capitalist may cause the workers to become increasingly dissatisfied and more militant, but the increasing militancy of the proletariat may well cause the capitalists to react by becoming even more exploitative in order to crush the resistance of the workers. This kind of thinking does not mean that the dialectician never considers causal relationships in the social world. It does mean that when dialectical thinkers talk about causality, they are always attuned to reciprocal relationships among social factors as well as to the dialectical totality of social life in which they are embedded.

Past, Present, Future

Dialecticians are interested not only in the relationships of social phenomena in the contemporary world but also in the relationship of those contemporary realities to both past and future social phenomena. This has two distinct implications for a dialectical sociology. First, it means that dialectical sociologists are concerned with studying the historical roots of the contemporary world as Marx (1857–1858/1964) did in his study of the sources of modern capitalism. In fact, dialectical thinkers are very critical of modern sociology for its failure to do much historical research.

Second, many dialectical thinkers are attuned to current social trends in order to understand the possible future directions of society. This interest in future possibilities is one of the main reasons dialectical sociology is inherently political. It is interested in encouraging practical activities that would bring new possibilities into existence. However, dialecticians believe that the nature of this future world can be discerned only through a careful study of the contemporary world. It is their view that the sources of the future exist in the present.

No Inevitabilities

The dialectical view of the relationship between the present and the future need not imply that the future is determined by the present. Terence Ball (1991) describes Marx as a “political possibilist” rather than a “historical inevitabilist.” Because social phenomena are constantly acting and reacting, the social world defies a simple, deterministic model. The future may be based on some contemporary model, but not inevitably. Marx’s historical studies showed him that people make choices but that these choices are limited. For instance, Marx believed that society was engaged in a class struggle and that people could choose to participate either in “the revolutionary reconstitution of society at large, or in the common ruin of the contending classes”

(Marx and Engels 1848/1948). Marx hoped and believed that the future was to be found in communism, but he did not believe that the workers could simply wait passively for it to arrive. Communism would come only through their choices and struggles.

This disinclination to think deterministically is what makes the best-known model of the dialectic—thesis, antithesis, synthesis—inadequate for sociological use. This simple model implies that a social phenomenon will inevitably spawn an opposing form and that the clash between the two will inevitably lead to a new, synthetic social form. But in the real world, there are no inevitabilities. Furthermore, social phenomena are not easily divided into the simple thesis, antithesis, and synthesis categories adopted by some Marxists. The dialectician is interested in the study of real relationships rather than grand abstractions. It is this disinclination to deal in grand abstractions that led Marx away from Hegel and would lead him today to reject such a great oversimplification of the dialectic as thesis, antithesis and synthesis.

Lecture 22**CLASSICAL SOCIOLOGICAL THEORISTS: KARL MARX (1818-1883)-II****(Topic 90-93)****Human Potential**

Marx (1850/1964:64) wrote in an early work that human beings are an “ensemble of social relations.” He indicates by this that our human potential is intertwined with our specific social relations and our institutional context. Therefore, human nature is not a static thing but varies historically and socially. To understand human potential, we need to understand social history, because human nature is shaped by the same dialectical contradictions that Marx believed shapes the history of society. For Marx, a conception of human potential that does not take social and historical factors into account is wrong, but to take them into account is not the same as being without a conception of human nature. It simply complicates this conception. For Marx, there is a human potential in general, but what is more important is the way it is “modified in each historical epoch”. When speaking of our general human potential, Marx often used the term *species being*. By this he meant the potentials

Labor

For Marx, species being and human potential are intimately related to labor: Labour is, in the first place, a process in which both man and Nature participate, and in which man of his own accord starts, regulates, and controls the material reactions between himself and Nature.

We see of Marx’s view of the relation between labor and human nature. First, what distinguishes us from other animals— our species being—is that our labor creates something in reality that previously existed only in our imagination. Our production reflects our purpose. Marx calls this process in which we create external objects out of our internal thoughts *objectification*. Second, this labor is material (Sayers, 2007). It works with the more material aspects of nature (e.g., raising fruits and vegetables, cutting down trees for wood) in order to satisfy our material needs. Finally, Marx believed that this labor does not just transform the material aspects of nature but also transforms us, including our needs, our consciousness, and our human nature. Labor is thus at the same time (1) the objectification of our purpose, (2) the establishment of an essential relation between human need and the material objects of our need, and (3) the transformation of our human nature.

Marx’s use of the term *labor* is not restricted to economic activities; it encompasses all productive actions that transform the material aspects of nature in accordance with our purpose. Whatever is created through this free purposive activity is both an expression of our human nature and a transformation of it. As we will see below, the process of labor has been changed under capitalism, making it difficult for us to understand Marx’s conception, but we get close to Marx’s concept when we think of the creative activity of an artist. Artwork is a representation of the thought of the artist. In Marx’s terms, artwork is an objectivation of the artist.

However, it is also true that the process of creating the art changes the artist. Through the process of producing the art, the artist’s ideas about the art change, or the artist may become aware of a

new vision that needs objectivation. In addition, the completed artwork can take on a new meaning for the artist and transform the artist's conceptions of that particular work or of art in general.

Labor, even artistic labor, is in response to a need, and the transformation that labor entails also transforms our needs. The satisfaction of our needs can lead to the creation of new needs (Marx and Engels, 1845–1846/1970:43). For example, the production of cars to satisfy our need for long-distance transportation led to a new need for highways. Even more significantly, although few people thought they needed cars when cars were first invented, now most people feel that they need them. A similar change has occurred with the computer. Whereas a generation ago few thought they needed a personal computer, now many people need one, as well as all of the software and peripherals that go with it. We labor in response to our needs, but the labor itself transforms our needs, which can lead to new forms of productive activity.

According to Marx, this transformation of our needs through labor is the engine of human history. Labor, for Marx, is the development of our truly human powers and potentials. By transforming material reality to fit our purpose, we also transform ourselves. Furthermore, labor is a social activity. Work involves others, directly in joint productions, or because others provide us with the necessary tools or raw materials for our work, or because they enjoy the fruits of our labor. Labor does not transform only the individual human; it also transforms society. Indeed, for Marx, the emergence of a human as an individual depends on a society. Marx wrote, "Man is in the most literal sense of the word a *zoon politikon*, not only a social animal, but an animal which can develop into an individual only in society" (1857–1858/1964:84). In addition, Marx tells us that this transformation includes even our consciousness: "Consciousness is, therefore, from the very beginning a social product, and remains so as long as men exist at all" (Marx and Engels, 1845–1846/1970:51). Consequently, the transformation of the individual through labor and the transformation of society are not separable.

Alienation

Marx analyzed the peculiar form that our relation to our own labor has taken under capitalism. We no longer see our labor as an expression of our purpose. There is no objectivation. Instead, we labor in accordance with the purpose of the capitalist who hires and pays us. Rather than being an end in itself—an expression of human capabilities—labor in capitalism is reduced to being a means to an end: earning money (Marx, 1932/1964:173). Because our labor is not our own, it no longer transforms us. Instead we are alienated from our labor and therefore alienated from our true human nature. Although it is the individual who feels alienated in capitalist society, Marx's basic analytic concern was with the structures of capitalism that cause this alienation (Israel, 1971). Marx uses the concept of alienation to reveal the devastating effect of capitalist production on human beings and on society. Of crucial significance here is the two-class system in which capitalists employ workers (and thereby own workers' labor time) and capitalists own the means of production (tools and raw materials) as well as the ultimate products. To survive, workers are forced to sell their labor time to capitalists. These structures, especially the division of labor, are the sociological basis of alienation.

1. Workers in capitalist society are alienated from their **productive activity**. They do not produce objects according to their own ideas or to directly satisfy their own needs. Instead, workers work for capitalists, who pay them a subsistence wage in return for the right to use them in any way they see fit. Because productive activity belongs to the capitalists, and because they decide what is to be done with it, we can say that workers are alienated from that activity. Furthermore, many workers who perform highly specialized tasks have little sense of their role in the total production process. For example, automobile assembly-line workers who tighten a few bolts on an engine may have little feel for how their labor contributes to the production of the entire car. They do not objectivate their ideas, and they are not transformed by the labor in any meaningful way. Instead of being a process that is satisfying in and of itself, productive activity in capitalism is reduced, Marx argued, to an often boring and stultifying means to the fulfillment of the only end that really matters in capitalism: earning enough money to survive.

2. Workers in capitalist society are alienated not only from productive activities but also from the object of those activities—the **product**. The product of their labor belongs not to the workers but to the capitalists, who may use it in any way they wish because it is the capitalists' private property. Marx (1932/1964:117) tells us, "Private property is thus the product, the result, the necessary consequence of alienated labour." The capitalist will use his or her ownership in order to sell the product for a profit.

3. Workers in capitalist society are alienated from their **fellow workers**. Marx's assumption was that people basically need and want to work cooperatively in order to appropriate from nature what they require to survive. But in capitalism this cooperation is disrupted, and people, often strangers, are forced to work side by side for the capitalist. Even if the workers on the assembly line are close friends, the nature of the technology makes for a great deal of isolation.

4. Workers in capitalist society are alienated from their own **human potential**. Instead of being a source of transformation and fulfillment of our human nature, the workplace is where we feel least human, least ourselves. Individuals perform less and less like human beings as they are reduced in their work to functioning like machines. Even smiles and greetings are programmed and scripted. Consciousness is numbed and, ultimately, destroyed as relations with other humans and with nature are progressively controlled. The result is a mass of people unable to express their essential human qualities, a mass of alienated workers.

Alienation is an example of the sort of contradiction that Marx's dialectical approach focused on. There is a real contradiction between human nature, which is defined and transformed by labor, and the actual social conditions of labor under capitalism. What Marx wanted to stress is that this contradiction cannot be resolved merely in thought. We are not any less alienated because we identify with our employer or with the things that our wages can purchase. Indeed, these things are a symptom of our alienation, which can be resolved only through real social change.

The Structures of Capitalist Society

In Europe in Marx's time, industrialization was increasing. People were being forced to leave agricultural and artisan trades and to work in factories where conditions were often harsh. By the 1840s, when Marx was entering his most productive period, Europe was experiencing a

widespread sense of social crisis (Seigel, 1978:106). In 1848 a series of revolts swept across Europe (soon after the publication of Marx and Engel's *Communist Manifesto*). The effects of industrialization and the political implications of industrialization were especially apparent in the mostly rural states collectively referred to as Germany.

At the beginning of the nineteenth century, cheap manufactured goods from England and France began to force out of business the less efficient manufacturers in Germany. In response, the political leaders of the German states imposed capitalism on their still mainly feudal societies. The resulting poverty, dislocation, and alienation were particularly evident because of the rapidity of the change. Marx's analysis of alienation was a response to the economic, social, and political changes that Marx saw going on around him. He did not view alienation as a philosophical problem. He wanted to understand what changes would be needed to create a society in which human potential could be adequately expressed. Marx's important insight was that the capitalist economic system is the primary cause of alienation. Marx's work on human nature and alienation led him to a critique of capitalist society and to a political program oriented to overcoming the structures of capitalism so that people could express their essential humanity (Mészáros, 1970).

Capitalism is an economic system in which great numbers of workers who own little produce commodities for the profit of small numbers of capitalists who own all of the following: the commodities, the means of producing the commodities, and the labor time of the workers, which they purchase through wages (H. Wolf, 2005b). One of Marx's central insights is that capitalism is much more than an economic system. It is also a system of power. The secret of capitalism is that political powers have been transformed into economic relations (Wood, 1995). Capitalists seldom need to use brute force. Capitalists are able to coerce workers through their power to dismiss workers and close plants. Capitalism, therefore, is not simply an economic system; it is also a political system, a mode of exercising power, and a process for exploiting workers.

In a capitalist system, the economy seems to be a natural force. People are laid off, wages are reduced, and factories are closed because of "the economy." We do not see these events as the outcomes of social or political decisions. Links between human suffering and the economic structures are deemed irrelevant or trivial.

Capitalism a system of power

- Capitalism is more than an economic system – A system of power.
- Capitalists are able to coerce workers through their power to dismiss workers and close plants.
- Capitalists have the power – exploiting workers.
- Capitalists seldom need to use brute force.
- Capitalist approach produces certain type of relations between the proletariat and the capitalist.
- The capacity of capital to generate profit appears "as a power endowed by Nature— a productive power that is immanent in Capital."
- Power to treat workers unfairly in order to benefit from their work. Exploitation.
- For Marx, capitalism is a relation of power.

- Powerful and the powerless.
- Seeds of exploitation.
- People are laid off, wages are reduced, and factories are closed because of “the economy.”
- Natural force of capitalist system.
- Force the workers to accept the terms and conditions.